

# Cues of Commitment: Integration and Naturalization Support in Taiwan and South Korea

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## Abstract

Does immigrant civic engagement increase public support for naturalization outside Western democracies? We examine that question with conjoint experiments embedded in a structured comparison of South Korea and Taiwan ( $N=4,049$ ), two recently immigrant-receiving democracies whose post-democratization trajectories diverged in ways that bear directly on immigrant incorporation. South Korea combines dense migrant advocacy networks with more ascriptive membership boundaries, whereas Taiwan combines weaker migrant advocacy with a more civic-territorial identity regime. The comparison lets us weigh civic-legacy and identity-regime accounts against each other. Integration cues increase support for naturalization in both countries, but the effects are consistently larger in Taiwan. They also soften identity-based penalties. In Taiwan, volunteering and community participation sharply reduce penalties faced by Muslim and non-co-ethnic applicants. In South Korea, those penalties persist, especially for Muslim applicants. On balance, the pattern fits the identity-regime account better than the civic-legacy account.

**Keywords:** immigration, citizenship, public opinion, experiments, East Asia

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# 1 Introduction

When do acts of civic engagement persuade citizens that immigrants deserve to become citizens? Research in Western democracies shows that behavioral signals of commitment, such as volunteering and community participation, increase public support for immigrant inclusion (Levy and Wright, 2020; Weiss and Tulin, 2021; Sniderman, Hagendoorn and Prior, 2004). But this evidence comes from settings where civic participation is already widely recognized as a marker of good citizenship. Whether such behaviors carry the same weight in democracies with stronger ascriptive conceptions of nationhood is an open question.

Citizenship decisions define who belongs to the political community, the boundary of the political “we.” As diversity increases (De Haas, Castles and Miller, 2020) and identity conflicts sharpen (Norris and Inglehart, 2019; Sides, Tesler and Vavreck, 2018), naturalization has become one place where those boundary disputes are fought. Scholarship on immigration attitudes is extensive (e.g., Hainmueller and Hopkins, 2015; Dancygier and Laitin, 2014; Kustov, 2025), but public support for granting citizenship itself remains understudied (Peters, Vink and Schmeets, 2018), especially outside Western democracies.

South Korea and Taiwan form a useful comparison. Both democratized in the late 1980s and only recently became significant immigrant-receiving societies, but they diverged sharply in two domains that shape how publics interpret immigrant behavior: the national identity regime that defines who can belong, and the civil society institutions that frame immigrant incorporation.

In South Korea, labor, church, and human rights movements that fought for democratization later redirected their organizational capacity toward migrant advocacy, building durable partnerships with the state that now anchor a coordinated incorporation regime (Chung, 2020, 68–75). But that institutional architecture still sits inside an ethno-nationalist framework that democratization did little to dislodge. Korean ancestry remains central to popular definitions of nationhood (Shin, 2006; Hur, 2022; Jo, 2025), and minority identities face strong pressures to conform to dominant national frames (Denney, Steinhardt and Bhowmick, 2026).

Taiwan moved in the opposite direction. Democratization triggered a civic-territorial redefinition of national identity, as political allegiance, democratic values, and a pluralistic understanding of “Taiwanese-

ness” gradually displaced ethnic Han nationalism (Chu and Lin, 2001; Zhong, 2016). Ethnicity’s centrality weakened as competing parties claimed ownership of Taiwanese identity and non-Han histories entered public narratives (Wang and Liu, 2004; Simon, 2007; Chen, Lin and Yang, 2023). The resulting identity regime is more pluralistic and leaves room for a wider range of acceptable identities to coexist (Denney, Steinhardt and Bhowmick, 2026). Yet the civil society organizations involved in immigrant incorporation remain thin: fragmented, locally based, and weakly connected to state policy (Chung, 2020, 103–116).

These divergent trajectories generate two competing expectations. One, drawn from research on civic legacies, holds that historically rooted civil society networks heighten the public salience of civic participation. Organizations that emerged from democratization-era struggles can carry forward norms and practices that make acts of community engagement easier to recognize as evidence of commitment (Bloemraad, 2006; Marrow, 2005; Jones-Correa, 1998; de Graauw, 2016; Chung, 2020). If that account is right, South Korea’s stronger advocacy networks should make behavioral cues more influential there.

The alternative, drawn from work on national identity regimes, predicts that behavioral signals carry greater weight where the boundaries of membership are defined in civic-territorial rather than ascriptive terms (Brubaker, 1992; Shulman, 2004; Kunovich, 2009; Verkuyten and Martinovic, 2015). Where belonging rests on shared values and civic participation rather than ancestry, acts of community engagement map more directly onto widely held criteria for inclusion. If that account is right, Taiwan’s more pluralistic identity regime should make civic engagement a more persuasive basis for naturalization support.

The two mechanisms operate through distinct channels. Civic legacies work through the density of organizational networks that normalize pro-integration norms. National identity regimes work through the criteria that define who belongs, and specifically whether behavioral commitment can substitute for ascriptive markers like ancestry. Because South Korea scores high on the former and Taiwan on the latter, the two frameworks generate opposing expectations about where integration cues should exert the strongest effects.

We test these competing expectations using nationally representative conjoint survey experiments

fielded in South Korea and Taiwan in 2024 (N=4,049). Respondents evaluated randomly generated immigrant profiles that varied on twelve attributes, including ethnicity, religion, occupation, and behavioral integration cues: whether the immigrant volunteers at a local community center, co-hosts multicultural events, or engages in no visible civic activity. We use “integration cues” to refer to these behavioral signals because they capture an immigrant’s active participation in host-society civic life, the form of commitment most directly relevant to decisions about political membership. The design isolates the marginal effect of these behavioral signals on support for naturalization. We also embedded a brief framing prime highlighting civil society involvement in immigration policy to see whether activating civil society discourse alters cue responsiveness.

In both countries, integration cues raise support for naturalization, but not by the same amount. Respondents in Taiwan react more strongly than respondents in South Korea. The cues also do different work at the boundary of membership. In Taiwan, they shrink penalties for ethnically or culturally distant immigrants much more sharply. In South Korea, especially for Muslim applicants, sizable penalties remain. Civic behavior can soften exclusionary judgments in both places, but how much it does so depends on national context. The pattern fits the identity-regime account better, though it does not settle the question.

The findings show that the meaning of integration cues depends on how national membership is defined. Civic behavior increases support for naturalization in both settings, but it matters more where national identity is defined in civic-territorial terms. In South Korea, where the boundaries of belonging remain more rigid and tied to ancestry, behavioral signals shift attitudes but do not fully offset cultural distance penalties. In Taiwan, where national identity has undergone a civic redefinition, integration cues match widely held membership criteria and produce stronger, more inclusive effects.

The paper contributes to comparative political behavior by showing how democratic publics turn behavioral evidence into judgments about full political membership, and by identifying the contexts in which those signals carry more weight.



## 2 The Politics of Immigration and Naturalization

Immigration and citizenship policy debates are becoming increasingly salient in societies that, until recently, had very small migrant populations and understood national belonging in largely ancestry-based terms. South Korea and Taiwan exemplify this shift. Within a generation, both moved from near-zero immigration to becoming significant immigrant-receiving societies relative to regional peers (see Figure 1). In Taiwan, the foreign-born share nearly doubled from 2.5 percent in 2010 to 4.9 percent in 2024, making it the most demographically diverse society in East Asia. In South Korea, the share grew from 1.2 percent to 3.5 percent over the same period. These demographic changes make it possible to examine how publics interpret immigrant incorporation in settings moving from low to moderate diversity.

Prior work on support for immigrant integration focuses predominantly on the United States and assumes that commitment cues reflect a distinct American civic nationalist tradition (Levy and Wright, 2020). Recent studies, however, challenge the assumption that shared civic values are unique to the American context, showing that values also shape immigrant integration in European settings (see Krakowski et al., 2025, for a review).

Because Western European countries and settler societies share long histories of large-scale immigration and more liberal individualist traditions, they are usually treated as the natural comparison set. We look instead at contexts where commitment cues should, if anything, have a harder time moving opinion, given strong legacies of ethnic nationalism and limited migration experience. That makes South Korea and Taiwan a useful place to ask how context shapes the effect of the same underlying mechanism, in line with Falletti and Lynch's (2009) argument that mechanisms do not operate apart from context.

We focus on East Asian democracies with smaller immigrant populations to assess whether commitment cues depend on the normalization of immigration and broader acceptance of civic conceptions of national identity, or whether they operate more independently. In doing so, our comparative framework brings together three literatures: (1) individual-level determinants of immigration attitudes, including framing and behavioral signaling; (2) public support for immigrant naturalization, a distinct and politically important stage of incorporation; and (3) the macro-level role of civic legacies and national identity regimes in shaping how such cues are interpreted. Whereas most research focuses on attitudes toward

admission or residency (e.g., Hainmueller and Hopkins, 2015; Bansak, Hainmueller and Hangartner, 2016), we examine the less studied yet normatively central question of who should be granted citizenship.

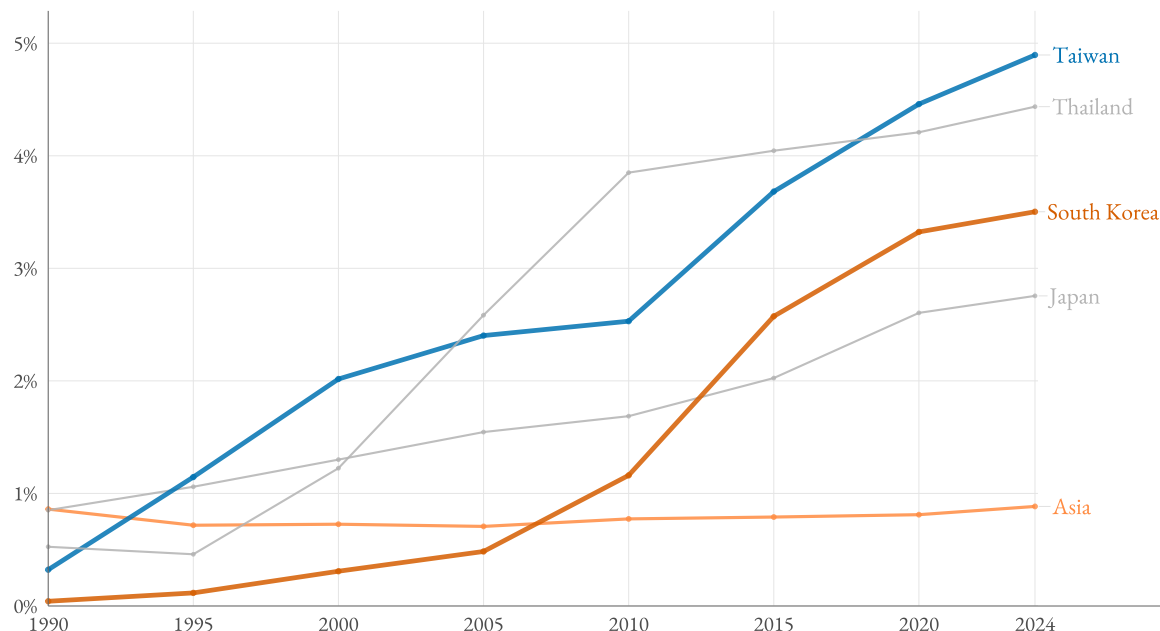


Figure 1: Share of the population that was born in another country. Data from the United Nations Department of Economic and Social Affairs (2024), shown for selected regional comparators and the average for all of Asia.

## 2.1 Integration Cues as Signals of Norm Conformity

A large literature identifies economic interests (Scheve and Slaughter, 2001; Mayda, 2006; Facchini and Mayda, 2009), sociotropic concerns about national-level outcomes (Hainmueller and Hopkins, 2015; Johnson and Rodger, 2015), and symbolic or cultural threats (Kinder and Sears, 1981; Citrin, Reingold and Green, 1990; Sides and Citrin, 2007) as drivers of immigration attitudes (for a recent meta-analysis, see Weber et al., 2025). Economic self-interest plays a limited role (Hainmueller and Hiscox, 2010), whereas concerns about cultural fit, cohesion, and shared values exert substantial influence (Sniderman, Hagendoorn and Prior, 2004; Hooghe and Marks, 2018; Pehrson, Brown and Zagefka, 2009).

Within this broader tradition, what we call “integration cues” specify a behavioral mechanism through which immigrants may influence public support. These are observable acts of civic engagement

(volunteering, participation in community organizations, engagement with local institutions) that signal willingness to conform to shared norms and contribute to the polity (Baert and Vujić, 2016; Levy and Wright, 2020). We use the term “integration cues” rather than “civic engagement” because the mechanism operates through signaling: what matters is not participation per se but the information it conveys about an immigrant’s commitment to the host society. Experimental evidence from Western Europe and North America shows that such behavioral cues reliably increase support for immigrant inclusion (Sniderman, Hagendoorn and Prior, 2004; Hainmueller and Hopkins, 2014; Weiss and Tulin, 2021; Sobolewska, Galandini and Lessard-Phillips, 2017; Donnelly, 2021; Hedegaard and Larsen, 2022; Findor et al., 2022).

Evidence specific to naturalization is more limited but suggestive. Signals associated with integration potential increase support for granting citizenship in several European settings (Bansak, Hainmueller and Hangartner, 2016). Naturalization itself improves economic, political, and social integration outcomes (Hainmueller, Hangartner and Pietrantuono, 2017) and sits at the core of debates about political membership and the civic foundations of nationhood (Bloemraad, 2018; Goodman and Wright, 2020; Peters, Vink and Schmeets, 2018). Yet the conditions under which integration cues shape support for naturalization remain insufficiently understood, particularly in non-Western democracies.

Cultural distance further conditions baseline acceptance. Immigrants perceived as ethnically or religiously distant face sharper penalties (Brader, Valentino and Suhay, 2008; Ford, 2011; Choi, Poertner and Sambanis, 2022), a pattern especially salient in East Asia, where immigrants from Muslim-majority and Southeast Asian countries receive consistently lower support (Denney and Green, 2021, 2024; Rich et al., 2022; Kao and Liu, 2025). Integration cues may therefore matter most in these settings, even if they cannot fully offset strong symbolic boundaries. The question is how civic behavior interacts with contextual features of democratic systems to shape preferences over naturalization.

## **2.2 National Identity and Civic Legacies**

One explanation highlights historically rooted civic legacies: the advocacy networks and organizational practices that emerged from earlier struggles for democratic inclusion and later came to shape immigrant

incorporation. Comparative research shows that dense civil society networks and durable NGO-state partnerships anchor pro-integration norms, framing civic participation as publicly recognizable evidence of commitment (Bloemraad, 2006; Marrow, 2005; Wong, 2006; de Graauw, 2016; Hochschild and Moltenkopf, 2009). Where such networks are well developed, immigrants' community engagement should be more visible and more likely to influence public evaluations. The mechanism is not limited to elite advocacy; it also conditions how ordinary citizens read behavioral signals, because organized civil society provides consistent public framing of what it means for immigrants to contribute.

In East Asia, the most systematic account of these dynamics argues that South Korea's democratization-era movements built a coordinated, state-linked incorporation regime, while Taiwan's migrant advocacy has remained decentralized and loosely coordinated (Chung, 2020, 68–75, 103–116). The civic legacy framework therefore predicts stronger responsiveness to integration cues in South Korea, where organized advocacy makes civic participation more publicly salient.

A second explanation centers on national identity regimes, which define the normative criteria for political membership (Banting et al., 2019; Hur, 2022). These regimes specify whether belonging rests primarily on ascriptive attributes or whether behavioral commitment and civic participation are accepted as legitimate bases for inclusion. In civic-territorial regimes, behavioral signals should matter more because they map directly onto widely held expectations of what constitutes a “good” member of the polity.

Every country contains mixtures of civic, voluntarist, and ethnic elements of national identity (Kunovich, 2009; Reeskens and Hooghe, 2010; Bonikowski and DiMaggio, 2016), but the balance differs across our two cases. South Korea retains a more rigid identity anchored in Korean ancestry (Shin, 2006; Seol and Skrentny, 2009; Lie, 2015; Denney and Green, 2021), with minority identities facing strong conformity pressures (Denney, Steinhardt and Bhowmick, 2026). Integration cues are therefore less likely to offset ancestry-based distinctions. Taiwan, by contrast, has undergone a civic-territorial redefinition since democratization, with democratic values and territorial allegiance displacing ethnic descent as the dominant criteria for belonging (Chu and Lin, 2001; Schubert, 2004; Kaeding, 2011; Zhong, 2016; Denney, Steinhardt and Qi, 2026). Within these boundaries, the identity regime is more pluralistic (Denney, Steinhardt and Bhowmick, 2026), and civic behavior aligns more closely with

widely accepted criteria for membership. Behavioral signals of commitment should therefore exert stronger effects in Taiwan.

## 2.3 Logic of Case Selection

South Korea and Taiwan form a most similar systems comparison. Both democratized in the late 1980s, following prolonged periods of authoritarian rule (Haggard and Kaufman, 1995; Rigger, 1999). Each inherited ethnicized conceptions of national identity shaped by Cold War-era nation-building (Shin, 2006; Wachman, 1994) and built strong developmental states with extensive bureaucratic capacity (Johnson, 1982; Evans, 1995). Both also remained low-immigration societies until the 1990s, as noted in Figure 1 above, when labor shortages and demographic change prompted the gradual opening of migration channels (Castles and Miller, 2009; Clemens, 2024; Seol and Skrentny, 2009; Lan, 2006). These shared structural features create a common backdrop for evaluating how divergent identity trajectories and civic legacies shape public responses to immigrant incorporation.

The two societies diverge in the domains highlighted by the competing theories. South Korea retains a more ascriptive conception of nationhood, but it possesses a stronger civic legacy in immigrant incorporation, rooted in labor- and rights-based mobilization. Taiwan, by contrast, underwent a civic-territorial redefinition of national identity during democratization but retains a weaker, decentralized civil society that is not particularly oriented toward migrant incorporation. These contrasts yield opposing expectations: identity regime theories predict stronger integration-cue effects in Taiwan, while civic-legacy theories predict stronger effects in South Korea. The case comparison is therefore part of the research design rather than background. It helps distinguish between the competing macro-level accounts alongside the conjoint evidence. Table 1 summarizes the logic of the comparison.

|                                                          | Taiwan                                                 | South Korea                                                 |
|----------------------------------------------------------|--------------------------------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------|
| <i>Structural conditions</i>                             |                                                        |                                                             |
| Civil society                                            | Fragmented; weak migrant-rights focus                  | Dense, coordinated; strong migrant-rights focus             |
| Identity regime                                          | Civic-territorial redefinition; weaker ascriptive core | Strong ethno-national core; limited civic-territorial shift |
| <i>Competing predictions for integration cue effects</i> |                                                        |                                                             |
| Identity regime                                          | Stronger: civic norms align with membership criteria   | Weaker: ascriptive boundaries limit cue influence           |
| Civic legacy                                             | Weaker: fragmented civil society limits norm diffusion | Stronger: dense advocacy networks amplify civic signals     |

Table 1: Contrasting theoretical expectations for Taiwan and South Korea. The top section summarizes the structural similarities and differences between the two cases along two dimensions: civil society institutions and national identity regimes. The bottom section derives competing predictions for the effect of integration cues on naturalization support. Identity regime theory predicts stronger effects in Taiwan, where civic-territorial membership criteria give behavioral commitment greater normative weight. Civic legacy theory predicts stronger effects in South Korea, where dense advocacy networks should amplify the salience of civic participation. The hypotheses section formalizes these predictions.

## 2.4 Hypotheses

Our theoretical framework yields three core hypotheses. The first concerns the direct effect of integration cues. The second asks whether those cues soften identity-based penalties. The third contains two competing macro-level predictions about cross-national variation, derived from work on national identity regimes and historically rooted civic legacies. Both mechanisms address how publics interpret the same behavioral information, but they locate the source of variation in different places. Civic legacies matter through the density of organizational intermediaries that promote and normalize civic participation. Identity regimes matter through the normative openness of membership boundaries. Because South Korea scores high on the former and Taiwan on the latter, the two frameworks generate opposing

expectations about where integration cues should matter most.

***H<sub>1</sub> (Main Integration Cue Effect).*** *Immigrants who exhibit social integration cues will receive higher support for naturalization than otherwise identical immigrants who do not.*

Integration cues signal commitment to shared civic norms and have consistently increased support for immigrant inclusion in prior experimental research (Sniderman, Hagendoorn and Prior, 2004; Hainmueller and Hopkins, 2014; Levy and Wright, 2020; Weiss and Tulin, 2021). We therefore expect respondents in both countries to reward these behaviors.

***H<sub>2</sub> (Cue Mitigation of Identity-Based Penalties).*** *Integration cues will reduce or eliminate the penalties attached to ethnic or cultural difference.*

Ethnic and cultural distance activates negative stereotypes and threat perceptions (Kinder and Sears, 1981; Brader, Valentino and Suhay, 2008). Integration cues provide especially informative signals for immigrants who otherwise face lower baseline support due to ethnic or cultural distance. Behavioral evidence of commitment should therefore attenuate, or even eliminate, identity-based discrimination.

Our final hypothesis concerns how macro-level contexts shape cue responsiveness. Our understanding of national identity regimes and civic legacies implies competing predictions:

***H<sub>3a</sub> (Identity Regime Prediction).*** *Integration cues will have stronger positive effects in Taiwan than in South Korea.*

National identity regimes predict larger cue effects where membership boundaries are civic and flexible (Brubaker, 1992; Shulman, 2004; Verkuyten and Martinovic, 2015). As discussed above, Taiwan's post-democratization shift toward civic-territorial nationhood has elevated behavioral commitment as a key criterion for belonging (Chu and Lin, 2001; Denney, Steinhardt and Qi, 2026), whereas South Korea's national identity remains more ascriptive and anchored in ancestry (Shin, 2006; Hur, 2022). Integration cues should therefore be more effective in Taiwan.

***H<sub>3b</sub> (Civic Legacy Prediction).*** *Integration cues will have stronger positive effects in South Korea than in Taiwan.*

Civic legacy theories emphasize how historically rooted civil society mobilization and NGO-state coordination shape the visibility and interpretation of pro-integration norms (Marrow, 2005; Bloemraad, 2006; de Graauw, 2016; Jones-Correa, 1998). South Korea’s dense advocacy ecosystem should make civic behavior more salient, whereas Taiwan’s more fragmented civic environment should weaken this signal.

We adjudicate between  $H_{3a}$  and  $H_{3b}$  by comparing integration cue AMCEs across countries.  $H_{3a}$  is supported if cue effects are consistently and substantively larger in Taiwan;  $H_{3b}$  is supported if they are consistently larger in South Korea. If cross-national differences are small or mixed across cue types, neither prediction finds clear support. We supplement the comparison with a pooled model interacting cue levels with a country indicator (Appendix F) and with within-country mechanism tests (civic identity moderation and the civil society framing prime, Appendix D).

### 3 Design, Data, and Methodology

We measure native attitudes toward immigrant naturalization in South Korea and Taiwan using a choice-based conjoint experiment (Hainmueller, Hopkins and Yamamoto, 2014). Online surveys were administered through Qualtrics between January and June 2024 to native-born citizens. Respondents were recruited using stratified quota sampling to match national census distributions for age, sex, and region. Quality controls included Qualtrics’ fraud-detection tools, attention and manipulation checks, and manual verification of survey completion. Cases failing these checks were replaced in consultation with Qualtrics staff. The final samples consist of 1,999 respondents in South Korea and 2,050 in Taiwan. Appendix A provides additional detail on sampling procedures, quality checks, and respondent demographics. The study was preregistered prior to data collection (Appendix B).\*

Each respondent completed a series of evaluation tasks. At the start of each task, respondents were told that the national legislature was considering a new naturalization program and that public input would help guide the policy. They then viewed two immigrant profiles and selected which applicant should be prioritized for citizenship. Respondents also rated each immigrant on a 1–7 naturalization pri-

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\*The preregistered design included Japan as a third case and used country of origin as the primary cultural-distance indicator. Japan was dropped due to funding constraints, and religion replaced country of origin following peer feedback. Appendix B documents these and other deviations from the preregistered plan.



ority scale. South Korean respondents completed ten paired-choice tasks; Taiwanese respondents completed seven. After the final conjoint task, respondents provided an open-ended justification of their decision.

Table 2 summarizes the twelve randomized profile attributes and levels, and Table 3 displays the interface. Three attributes correspond directly to the hypotheses: (1) a behavioral integration cue (volunteering or community participation), (2) ethnicity, and (3) religion. The remaining attributes (family status, age, sex, prior work experience, prior trips, years since arrival, and language ability) were included to enhance realism and improve identification of the core attribute effects. All profile attributes were independently randomized with equal probability. Randomization checks indicate balance across covariates and across the two national samples (Appendix C).

We selected volunteering and co-hosting multicultural events because they are the most institutionally comparable forms of civic engagement across South Korea and Taiwan. Both are common enough to be recognizable, public enough to be noticed, and generic enough to avoid country-specific political meaning. Volunteering captures direct engagement with local institutions. Co-hosting events captures visible participation in community life and carries a modest pluralist signal. Together, they provide behavioral cues that respondents in both settings can interpret in similar ways.

The experimental design has two layers of random assignment. All profile attributes vary at the task level, which identifies the causal effects of specific immigrant traits. The behavioral integration cue, our primary treatment, varies at the respondent level. Following best practices (Kirkland and Coppock, 2018), respondent-level assignment avoids within-task interference, cue dilution, and learning effects. Respondents either saw profiles that included the integration cue (e.g., “volunteers weekly,” “co-hosts civic events”) in every task or saw profiles with no such behavioral information. That structure lets us estimate how exposure to integration cues shapes evaluations across the full set of conjoint tasks, independent of attribute ordering or task sequencing. The  $H_1$  AMCEs are estimated from the cue-shown subsample only; the  $H_2$  subgroup analyses use the full sample by comparing cue-shown and cue-not-shown conditions.

A civil society framing message was also randomized at the respondent level. Half of the respondents

received a short introductory statement emphasizing the role of NGOs, community groups, and local organizations in immigration policymaking (see Appendix D for the full prompt and exploratory results). This is an auxiliary within-case probe, not the core civic-legacy test. The main test of the civic-legacy argument still comes from the case comparison itself: South Korea pairs denser migrant advocacy with more ascriptive boundaries, while Taiwan pairs weaker migrant advocacy with a more civic-territorial conception of membership.

The design supports direct tests of the three hypotheses described above. All estimates come from ordinary least squares (OLS) linear probability models with standard errors clustered by respondent (Hainmueller, Hopkins and Yamamoto, 2014). We report both AMCEs and marginal means. AMCEs estimate the causal effect of attribute levels relative to a reference category and should be read as average preferences across the attribute distribution, not as preferences for specific profiles (Abramson, Kocak and Magazinnik, 2022). For the integration cue, the reference is “spends time alone”; for ethnicity, the reference is co-ethnic; for religion, the reference is not religious. Conjoint designs also mitigate social desirability bias by embedding sensitive attributes within multidimensional profiles, which lowers the salience of any single dimension (Horiuchi, Markovich and Yamamoto, 2022). For  $H_1$ , we estimate the main effect of integration cues using average marginal component effects (AMCEs) and marginal means. For  $H_2$ , the main figures pair subgroup marginal means with cue-specific cross-national contrasts, so the reader can see both absolute support levels and the formal Taiwan-versus-South Korea difference in cue premiums relative to the baseline of spending time alone (Leeper, Hobolt and Tilley, 2020). For  $H_{3a}$  and  $H_{3b}$ , we compare integration cue effects across Taiwan and South Korea to see which macro-level expectation better matches the observed pattern. Two further tests supplement the cross-national comparison.

First, we assess whether civic nationalists within each country exhibit stronger sensitivity to integration cues, which would be most consistent with the identity regime expectation. Civic nationalists define national membership through shared values, democratic commitment, and civic participation (Sniderman, Hagendoorn and Prior, 2004; Kunovich, 2009; Bonikowski and DiMaggio, 2016), and should therefore place greater weight on behavioral evidence of commitment. If the identity regime mechanism is correct, we should observe the strongest responsiveness among Taiwanese civic nationalists, whose

country's civic-territorial identity shift has elevated behavioral commitment as a key criterion for membership, unlike in South Korea, where ancestry remains more salient. Respondents' national identity orientations are measured using standard survey items (Kunovich, 2009; Bonikowski and DiMaggio, 2016). We classify respondents as civic identifiers if they assign importance to legal citizenship and institutional respect but do not simultaneously assign importance to both ancestry and birthplace; all others are coded as non-civic identifiers. Appendix D reports the full coding rule and the alternative Taiwan specification.

Second, we evaluate whether the civil society framing message amplifies cue responsiveness. This test follows from the civic legacy expectation, which links public interpretations of immigrant behavior to historically rooted patterns of civil society mobilization and coordination with the state. In South Korea, these networks are dense, institutionalized, and closely integrated into local governance, so highlighting civil society involvement in immigration policy should make civic engagement by immigrants more salient. Taiwan's civil society institutions, by contrast, are less developed and more fragmented, and civil society organizations play a more limited and uneven role in immigrant incorporation. If civic legacies shape how behavioral information is interpreted, the framing prime should therefore increase responsiveness to integration cues in South Korea but not in Taiwan.

| Attribute                 | Levels                                                                                                                      |
|---------------------------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <i>Social integration</i> | Associates only with expatriates; Spends time alone; Co-hosts multicultural events; Volunteers weekly at a community center |
| <i>Ethnicity</i>          | Co-ethnic; Not co-ethnic                                                                                                    |
| <i>Religion</i>           | Not religious; Christian; Buddhist; Muslim                                                                                  |
| Country of origin         | United States; China; Indonesia; Brazil <sup>a</sup> ; South Korea <sup>b</sup> ; the Philippines                           |
| Occupation                | Programmer/engineer; Farmer/agricultural worker; Unemployed; Office worker                                                  |
| Family status             | Single; Married; Married with children                                                                                      |
| Age                       | 27; 36 <sup>a</sup> / 35 <sup>b</sup> ; 47; 58                                                                              |
| Sex                       | Male; Female                                                                                                                |
| Prior work experience     | None; Worked in home country; Worked previously in country                                                                  |
| Prior trips               | Visited once with friends; Previously overstayed visa; Short-term working visa                                              |
| Years since arrival       | 2; 7; 12 <sup>a</sup> / 5; 8; 12 <sup>b</sup>                                                                               |
| Language ability          | None; A little; Conversational; Fluent <sup>a</sup> / Broken; Conversational; Fluent <sup>b</sup>                           |

<sup>a</sup>South Korea only. <sup>b</sup>Taiwan only.

Table 2: Conjoint experiment attributes and levels. Attributes in *italics* denote the primary quantities of interest.



are many implicit comparisons. We address this by concentrating on theoretically motivated hypotheses and interpreting patterns across tests rather than isolated significance results (Liu and Shiraito, 2023). We also apply Benjamini-Hochberg false discovery rate correction to all hypothesis tests; results are reported in Appendix F and no substantive conclusions change. Third, the effective sample sizes for this study are  $1,999 \times 10 = 19,990$  paired-choice tasks for South Korea and  $2,050 \times 7 = 14,350$  for Taiwan, yielding 39,980 and 28,700 profile-level observations, respectively. South Korean respondents evaluated ten paired-choice tasks and Taiwanese respondents evaluated seven. The difference reflects pilot testing: Taiwan’s instrument included additional open-text items that increased completion time, so tasks were reduced to maintain data quality and minimize attrition (Bansak et al., 2021). With over 14,000 profile evaluations per country, even the smaller Taiwanese sample provides adequate statistical power to detect AMCEs of 2–3 percentage points at conventional significance levels (Stefanelli and Lukac, 2024). Task-order stability analysis (Appendix F) shows no systematic differences between early and late conjoint tasks.

## 4 Findings

This section presents the results of the conjoint experiments in South Korea and Taiwan, organized around the three hypotheses developed above. Full model specifications and robustness checks using ratings outcomes are presented in Appendix D.

### 4.1 Main Effects of Integration Cues

Across both countries, cues of civic engagement increase support for naturalization. Figure 2 reports marginal means and AMCEs. The integration attribute ranges from prosocial civic engagement (volunteering, co-hosting events) to social withdrawal or separation (spending time alone, interacting only with foreigners). The estimates therefore capture both the premium for civic engagement and the penalty for visible non-integration. Respondents treat spending most of one’s time alone and interacting only with other foreign residents almost the same. In South Korea, the marginal means for those two conditions

are about 42 percent and 43 percent. In Taiwan, they are about 40 percent and 41 percent.

The positive cues move opinion in both countries. In South Korea, volunteering weekly at a community center raises support by 16 percentage points relative to spending time alone. Co-hosting multicultural events raises it by 13 points. In Taiwan, the gains are larger: 21 points for volunteering and 17 for co-hosting. Volunteering produces the stronger response in both cases. That makes sense given the attribute design. Community centers signal direct engagement with host-society institutions, while multicultural events can also involve participation with other foreign residents and therefore send a weaker signal of host-society integration.

Relative to the baseline of spending time alone, the volunteering effect is about 5 percentage points larger in Taiwan than in South Korea, and the co-hosting effect is about 4 points larger. Respondents in Taiwan put more weight on these behavioral cues when they judge naturalization claims. That is enough to confirm  $H_1$ : visible civic engagement earns a clear premium in both countries. The rating outcome in Appendix D shows the same pattern. Appendix E does as well. Both the structural topic model and the GPT-4o-mini classification show that cue-exposed respondents shift toward language of civic commitment and community participation, with larger shifts in Taiwan.

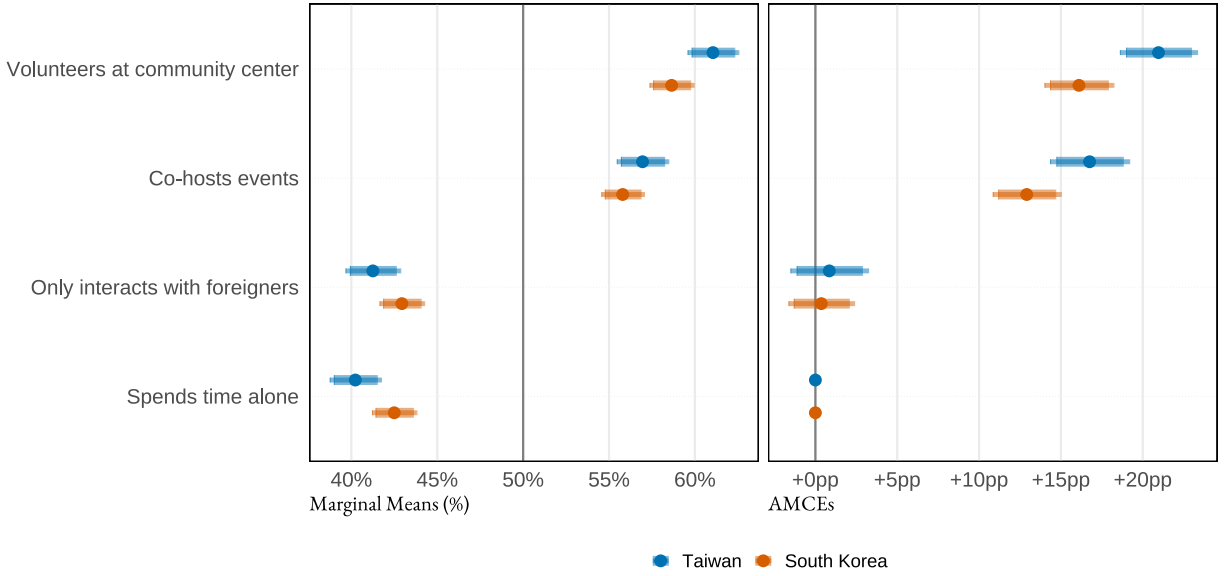


Figure 2: Marginal means and AMCEs for the effect of the integration cue attribute. The analysis is based on an Ordinary Least Squares (OLS) model with clustered standard errors. Marginal means represent the expected value of the outcome variable for each attribute level, holding all other attributes at their average levels. The AMCEs estimate the average change in the outcome variable associated with a particular attribute level, relative to a reference level, averaged across the distribution of all other attributes. Error bars represent 90 and 95 percent confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

## 4.2 Integration Cues and Identity-Based Discrimination

We next examine whether integration cues mitigate baseline penalties associated with ethnic and religious differences, which we consider ascriptive and cultural identity markers, respectively. Because the subgroup question concerns both cue responsiveness and overall profile favorability, Figures 3 and 4 use a hybrid presentation (Leeper, Hobolt and Tilley, 2020). The top panels report subgroup marginal means for South Korea and Taiwan, which makes it easy to see whether a profile rises above the 50 percent acceptance threshold in the forced-choice task. The bottom panels report the formal Taiwan-minus-South Korea difference in each positive cue premium relative to the baseline of spending time alone.

Regarding ethnicity, Figure 3 shows the same broad pattern in both countries: positive cues lift support for both ethnic groups, but they do more to narrow the baseline penalty for non-co-ethnic applicants. In South Korea, co-ethnic profiles rise from about 46 percent when the immigrant spends time alone to 60–61 percent under the two positive cues, while non-co-ethnic profiles rise from about 39 per-

cent to 52–56 percent. In Taiwan, the same baseline for non-co-ethnic applicants rises from about 39 percent to 55 percent under co-hosting and 60 percent under volunteering, which brings those profiles much closer to co-ethnic ones. The bottom panels show that Taiwan’s cue premium is somewhat larger than South Korea’s for both ethnic groups, on the order of about 3 to 5 percentage points, but the cross-national difference remains modest.

Religious identity produces larger baseline penalties, particularly for Muslim applicants. Figure 4 makes that clearer than the effect plots alone. In South Korea, Muslim profiles start at about 36 percent when the immigrant spends time alone and rise only to about 45 percent under co-hosting and 47 percent under volunteering, still below the 50 percent threshold. In Taiwan, Muslim profiles begin at about 34 percent but rise to 54 percent under co-hosting and 58 percent under volunteering. The bottom panels show that this is also where the formal cross-national difference is concentrated: Taiwan’s cue premium for Muslim profiles is about 11 percentage points larger under co-hosting and about 13 points larger under volunteering. Positive cues also move Christian, unaffiliated, and Buddhist/other profiles upward in both countries, but those cross-national differences are much smaller.

That comparison points to the same conclusion as the interaction estimates. Behavioral commitment matters in both countries, but it does more to overcome cultural distance in Taiwan than in South Korea. For religious difference especially, the combined marginal-means and country-difference presentation shows not just larger cue effects in Taiwan, but a substantively different outcome: positive cues move Muslim profiles above majority support in Taiwan but not in South Korea.

$H_2$  gets partial support. Integration cues reduce identity-based penalties, but the size of that reduction varies by context and by group. In Taiwan, integration cues narrow identity-based gaps most sharply for the most culturally distant groups. In South Korea, the same cues help, but less, and they help Muslim immigrants least. Behavioral evidence of commitment matters in both contexts, but it does not erase the social weight carried by ethnic and religious distance.



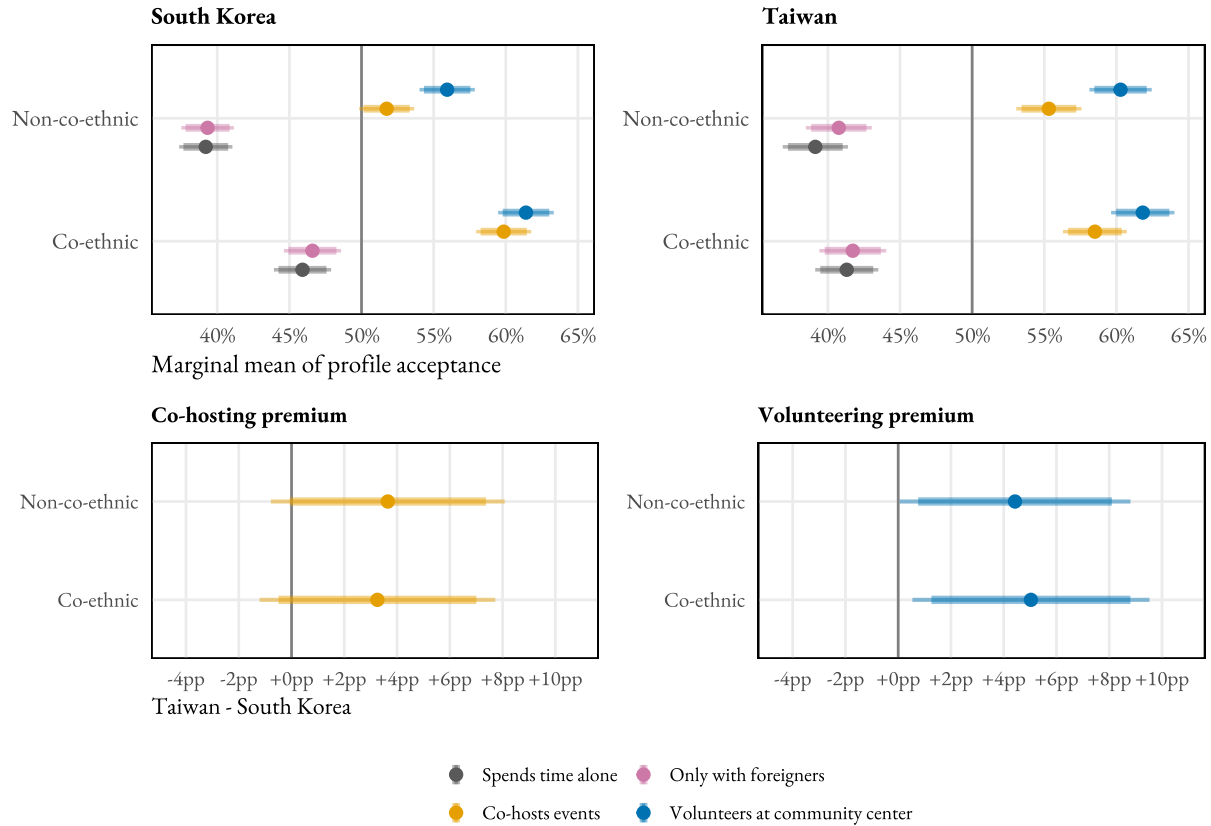


Figure 3: Ethnicity and integration cues: subgroup marginal means and cross-national cue-premium differences. The top panels report the probability that a co-ethnic or non-co-ethnic profile is selected in the forced-choice task under four cue conditions, shown separately for South Korea and Taiwan. Here, co-ethnic denotes ethnic Korean profiles in South Korea and Han profiles in Taiwan. The bottom panels report the Taiwan-minus-South Korea difference in the co-hosting and volunteering premiums, each relative to the baseline of spending time alone. In the top panels, the vertical line marks 50 percent support; in the bottom panels, it marks zero cross-national difference. Error bars represent 90 and 95 percent confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

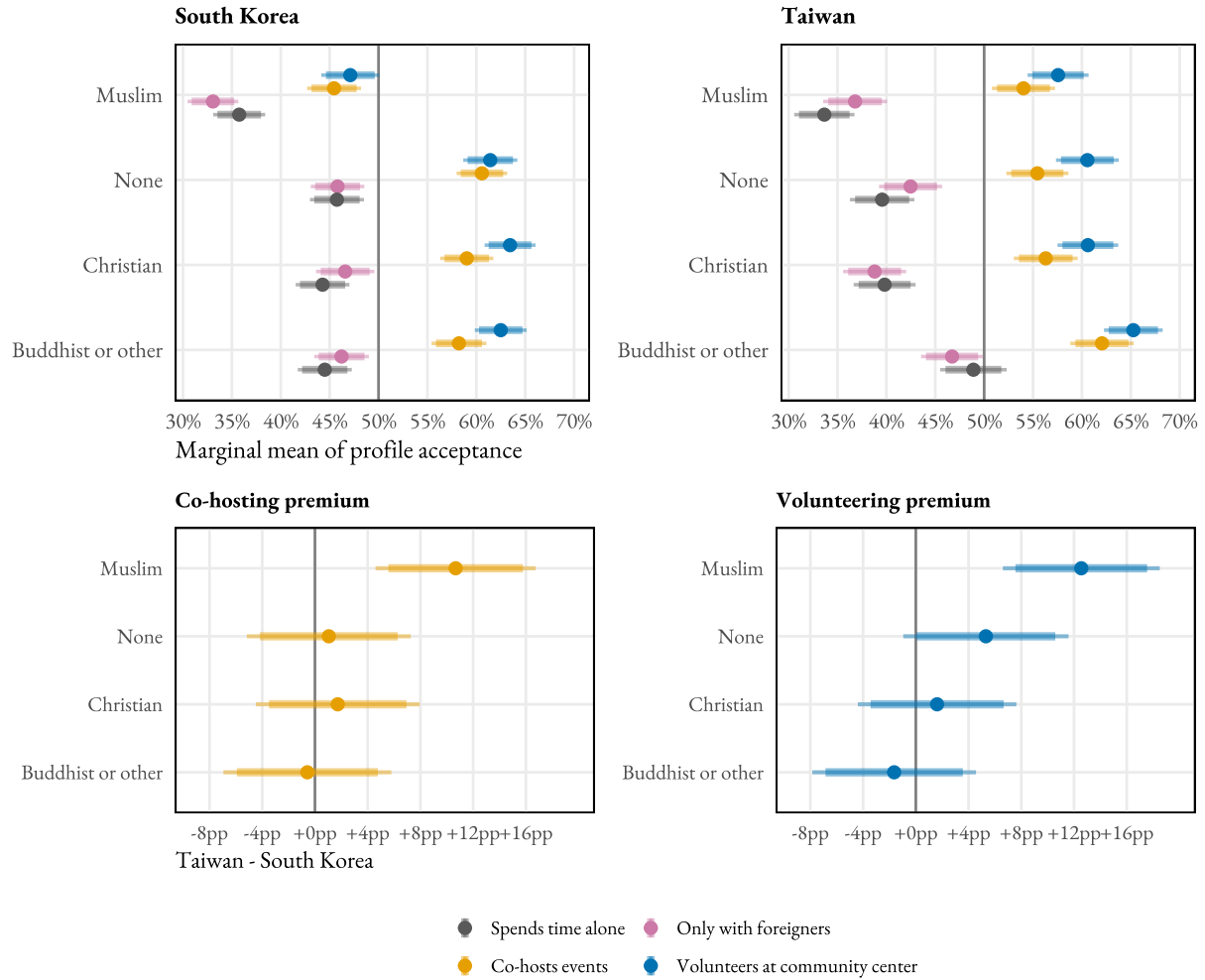


Figure 4: Religion and integration cues: subgroup marginal means and cross-national cue-premium differences. The top panels report the probability that a profile is selected in the forced-choice task for each religious category under four cue conditions, shown separately for South Korea and Taiwan. The bottom panels report the Taiwan-minus-South Korea difference in the co-hosting and volunteering premiums, each relative to the baseline of spending time alone. In the top panels, the vertical line marks 50 percent support; in the bottom panels, it marks zero cross-national difference. Error bars represent 90 and 95 percent confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

### 4.3 Cross-National Patterns and Mechanism Tests

The cross-national pattern fits  $H_{3a}$  better than  $H_{3b}$ . Across the positive cue conditions, effects are larger in Taiwan than in South Korea. The pooled model with country interactions (Appendix F, Table F.3) confirms that the volunteering and co-hosting effects are about four to five percentage points larger in

Taiwan. The subgroup analyses sharpen the contrast. For ethnicity, Taiwan’s edge is modest. For religion, it is largest among Muslim applicants, who also face the steepest baseline penalty. If behavioral commitment carries more weight where membership is defined in more civic terms, this is the pattern we would expect. Appendix E serves a narrower purpose. It shows that respondents used cue-relevant themes in their justifications, but it does not sort between the two macro accounts.

Two additional tests point in the same direction, though weakly (detailed results appear in Appendix D). First, civic nationalists respond more positively to integration cues in Taiwan than in South Korea, but the difference shows up mainly for volunteering rather than across all positive behaviors. In South Korea, the corresponding gaps are small and imprecise. This is, at most, weak support for  $H_{3a}$ . Second, the civil society framing message does not increase cue responsiveness in South Korea, where the civic-legacy account would expect the largest effect. Because the prime is brief, this is best read as a limited probe rather than a decisive refutation of the civic-legacy argument.

## 5 Discussion and Conclusion

This paper examines how behavioral integration cues shape public support for immigrant naturalization in Taiwan and South Korea. Using nationally representative conjoint experiments, we ask how citizens interpret immigrant civic engagement and when those behaviors affect naturalization preferences.

The main finding is straightforward. In both Taiwan and South Korea, cues of civic participation increase support for naturalization by roughly 13 to 21 percentage points relative to a baseline of no engagement. That result fits earlier work showing that integration cues operate as signals of norm conformity and commitment (Levy and Wright, 2020; Weiss and Tulin, 2021). Here, the same logic extends to citizenship, where judgments about immigrants bear directly on political membership (Bloemraad, 2018; Goodman and Wright, 2020). Even in settings with strong ethno-national traditions, civic engagement remains a recognizable sign that an immigrant has taken on obligations associated with belonging.

The  $H_2$  results are less even across groups and countries. In Taiwan, civic participation narrows gaps between majority and minority groups, with the largest gains among Muslim applicants, who begin from

the lowest baseline. In South Korea, the same cues help, but they help less. Muslim immigrant profiles benefit the least, which suggests that civic behavior cannot fully offset harder social boundaries. That divergence resembles findings from Western Europe (Adida, Laitin and Valfort, 2016) and fits work on South Korea's more rigid social and national boundaries (Seol and Skrentny, 2009; Denney and Green, 2021).

The cross-national comparison fits the identity-regime argument better than the civic-legacy argument. Integration cues matter more in Taiwan, which is what we would expect if civic-territorial membership criteria make behavioral commitment more relevant to judgments about belonging (Brubaker, 1992; Shulman, 2004; Verkuyten and Martinovic, 2015). South Korea's denser and historically rooted civic institutions, which should make civic participation more visible if the civic-legacy story were driving public opinion (Marrow, 2005; Bloemraad, 2006; Chung, 2020), do not produce larger cue effects here. In this comparison, civic legacies still matter for advocacy fields and state-society coordination, but they appear to matter less than identity regimes for how ordinary citizens read behavioral signals. The point is not that civic legacies are irrelevant. It is that, in these two cases, membership boundaries do more to shape mass responses to integration cues.

These results add to three debates. First, they shift attention from admission and residence preferences (Hainmueller and Hopkins, 2015; Bansak, Hainmueller and Hangartner, 2016; Weber et al., 2025) to naturalization, where public judgments help determine who receives political membership (Bloemraad, 2018; Peters, Vink and Schmeets, 2018). Second, they show that national identity regimes matter not only because individuals hold civic or ethnic views, but also because those regimes shape how the same behavioral signal is interpreted at the mass level. The Korea-Taiwan comparison shows that identical acts of civic engagement can carry different weight depending on whether behavioral commitment is treated as a legitimate basis for belonging. Third, they qualify arguments about meso-level institutions and mass opinion. South Korea and Taiwan separate organized migrant advocacy from membership boundaries in a way that makes the two accounts pull in opposite directions, and the comparison suggests that identity regimes do more than civic legacies to shape how citizens read evidence of commitment.

Civic engagement can increase support for naturalization, but its effect depends on how it fits pre-

vailing conceptions of belonging. Integration cues reduce identity-based barriers without eliminating them. Policies that facilitate immigrant participation in community institutions may therefore increase support for naturalization, but their effects will vary across societies depending on whether behavioral commitment fits widely accepted membership criteria.

The design also has limits. First, the macro-level argument rests on a two-country comparison, so the paper cannot cleanly separate identity regimes from civic legacies. More cases, especially ones that combine strong civic legacies with civic-territorial identity regimes, would help sort the two mechanisms more convincingly. Second, our test of the civic-legacy mechanism is thin. The civil society frame is a short textual prime, not real exposure to advocacy networks or sustained organizational contact. A stronger treatment, or direct measures of contact with migrant-serving organizations, could produce different results. Third, conjoint profiles are stylized. They improve internal validity and blunt some social desirability concerns (Horiuchi, Markovich and Yamamoto, 2022), but they do not reproduce real encounters with immigrants. The integration cue attribute also bundles reward for civic engagement with penalty for visible non-integration, since it spans behaviors from volunteering to social withdrawal (de la Cuesta, Egami and Imai, 2022).

With those limits in mind, the Korea-Taiwan comparison still shows that integration cues are not uniform signals. Their meaning depends on the identity regimes within which they are interpreted. Extending the comparison to other emerging immigrant-receiving democracies would show whether the same pattern holds beyond these two cases.

## **Preregistration**

This study was preregistered on the Open Science Framework prior to data collection (<https://osf.io/xfcuy>; September 25, 2023). Deviations from the preregistered design are documented in the Supplementary Information.

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## **Ethics Statement**

This research was conducted in accordance with ethical guidelines approved by the University of Vienna Ethics Committee under decision numbers 00654 and 00997. Respondents completed the survey through Qualtrics after reviewing the study information and consent language in the instrument.

## **Conflict of Interest**

The authors declare no conflict of interest.

## **Data Availability Statement**

Replication materials for the quantitative analyses, including the scripts, processed data, and figure-generation files used in the paper, are archived in a project repository that will be made publicly available upon publication. Requests for data and/or scripts will be considered by the authors.

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# Supplementary Information

## Cues of Commitment: Integration and Naturalization Support in Taiwan and South Korea

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## A Survey Design and Sample

This appendix provides the survey administration details referenced in the manuscript’s research design section. From January to June 2024, we recruited quota-based online samples of citizens in South Korea and Taiwan through Qualtrics’ managed panel service. Respondents were screened for citizenship and stratified by sex, age, and geographic region to match the most recent census distributions in each country. To improve data quality, we combined Qualtrics’ fraud-detection protocols (for example, bot detection, IP verification, and speed checks) with researcher-designed attention and manipulation checks and a manual review of completion metadata conducted with the Qualtrics project manager. Responses that failed these checks were removed and replaced before the dataset was finalized.

After these checks, the final sample consists of 1,999 respondents in South Korea and 2,050 in Taiwan. Tables A.1 and A.2 report the demographic distributions used to assess how closely the samples match the target population quotas.



| Variable                                  | Count | Proportion |
|-------------------------------------------|-------|------------|
| <b>Age</b>                                |       |            |
| ≤25                                       | 231   | 12%        |
| 26–35                                     | 338   | 17%        |
| 36–45                                     | 401   | 20%        |
| 46–55                                     | 433   | 22%        |
| >55                                       | 596   | 30%        |
| <b>Gender</b>                             |       |            |
| Male                                      | 1,015 | 51%        |
| Female                                    | 984   | 49%        |
| <b>Highest Level of Education</b>         |       |            |
| No University                             | 387   | 19%        |
| University (including technical colleges) | 1,612 | 81%        |
| <b>Location</b>                           |       |            |
| Seoul                                     | 870   | 44%        |
| Gyeonggi Province                         | 528   | 26%        |
| South Gyeongsang Province                 | 108   | 5%         |
| North Gyeongsang Province                 | 91    | 5%         |
| South Chungcheong Province                | 75    | 4%         |
| Gangwon Province                          | 61    | 3%         |
| North Chungcheong Province                | 50    | 3%         |
| North Jeolla Province                     | 46    | 2%         |
| South Jeolla Province                     | 39    | 2%         |
| Busan                                     | 32    | 2%         |
| Daegu                                     | 27    | 1%         |
| Incheon                                   | 26    | 1%         |
| Gwangju                                   | 18    | 1%         |
| Daejeon                                   | 15    | 1%         |
| Ulsan                                     | 6     | <1%        |
| Sejong                                    | 4     | <1%        |
| Jeju                                      | 3     | <1%        |

Table A.1: Summary Counts and Proportions: South Korea ( $N = 1,999$ ).

| Variable                                 | Count | Proportion |
|------------------------------------------|-------|------------|
| <b>Age</b>                               |       |            |
| ≤25                                      | 260   | 13%        |
| 26–35                                    | 483   | 24%        |
| 36–45                                    | 576   | 28%        |
| 46–55                                    | 406   | 20%        |
| >55                                      | 325   | 16%        |
| <b>Gender</b>                            |       |            |
| Male                                     | 1,094 | 53%        |
| Female                                   | 956   | 47%        |
| <b>Highest Level of Education</b>        |       |            |
| < 14 years of formal schooling           | 544   | 27%        |
| 14 years of formal schooling or more     | 1,506 | 73%        |
| <b>Region</b>                            |       |            |
| New Taipei City                          | 455   | 22%        |
| Taipei City                              | 361   | 18%        |
| Taichung City                            | 260   | 13%        |
| Kaohsiung City                           | 240   | 12%        |
| Taoyuan City                             | 208   | 10%        |
| Tainan City                              | 177   | 9%         |
| Changhua County                          | 62    | 3%         |
| Hsinchu City/County                      | 77    | 4%         |
| Pingtung County                          | 34    | 2%         |
| Yunlin County                            | 32    | 2%         |
| Keelung City                             | 28    | 1%         |
| Chiayi City/County                       | 40    | 2%         |
| Miaoli County                            | 23    | 1%         |
| Yilan County                             | 18    | 1%         |
| Nantou County                            | 14    | 1%         |
| Other (Hualien, Taitung, Penghu, Kinmen) | 21    | 1%         |

Table A.2: Summary Counts and Proportions: Taiwan ( $N = 2,050$ ).

## B Preregistration

This appendix summarizes the preregistration referenced in the manuscript’s research design section and records the limited ways in which the final study diverges from the preregistered plan.<sup>1</sup>

### Research Questions

The preregistration posed three research questions:

1. Do differences in civic legacies and civil society movements affect support for immigrant integration?
2. Do integration cues motivate support for naturalization and decrease identity-based discrimination?
3. Do integration cues sway civic nationalists in support of integration?

### Hypotheses

$H_1$ : Integration cues motivate support for naturalization.

$H_2$ : Integration cues decrease identity-based discrimination (by origin and ethnicity).

$H_3$ : Civic legacies moderate the effects of integration cues on identity-based discrimination.

$H_4$ : Civic nationalist beliefs moderate the effects of integration cues.

### Experimental Design

The preregistered design specified choice-based conjoint survey experiments in South Korea and Taiwan. Respondents evaluated paired-choice tasks between two hypothetical immigrants, with ten tasks in South Korea and seven in Taiwan. Profiles varied on twelve attributes spanning demographic, socioeconomic, and integration-related characteristics. The key attributes of interest were origin and ethnicity, the randomized social integration cue, and the randomized civil society framing treatment.

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<sup>1</sup>Denney et al., “Public Support for Citizenship Expansion in South Korea, Taiwan, and Japan,” September 25, 2023, <https://osf.io/xfccuy>.

## Outcomes

The primary dependent variable was the forced-choice selection between two immigrant profiles for naturalization. Secondary outcomes included a seven-point preference scale and an open-ended justification collected after the fourth task.

## Analysis Plan

The preregistered analysis plan centered on average marginal component effects (AMCEs) and marginal means. It used a conventional  $p < 0.05$  threshold, included prespecified robustness checks based on the rating measure and the text responses, and called for subgroup analyses interacting integration cues with identity attributes, civic-legacy framing, and civic-nationalist orientation.

## Deviations from the Preregistration

The final study differs from the preregistered design in three limited respects.

The preregistration treated country of origin as the main indicator of cultural proximity or distance. In the final analysis, after peer feedback, we use religion as the primary indicator instead. Religion better captures the symbolic boundaries tied to identity-based penalties in South Korea and Taiwan and fits the mechanism tested in the paper more closely. Country of origin remains a profile attribute, but it is no longer the main measure of cultural distance.

The preregistered design included three countries: South Korea, Taiwan, and Japan. The final study excludes Japan for feasibility and funding reasons. Substantively, Japan would have served as an intermediate case on both civic legacies and identity boundaries, whereas South Korea and Taiwan provide the sharper contrast between the identity-regime and civic-legacy expectations. Restricting the analysis to those two cases keeps the comparison aligned with the preregistered hypotheses.

The preregistered hypotheses included a separate expectation that civic nationalist beliefs would moderate responsiveness to integration cues ( $H_4$ ). In the manuscript, we reorganized the hypotheses so that the macro-level expectations form a competing pair ( $H_{3a}$  identity-regime prediction and  $H_{3b}$  civic-legacy prediction). The civic-nationalist moderator analysis remains part of the preregistered plan,

but it is now presented as a secondary test of the identity-regime mechanism rather than as a stand-alone hypothesis. This restructuring clarifies the theoretical contrast developed in the manuscript.

## C Balance Checks

To verify that our randomization procedure worked correctly, we conducted balance checks examining the distribution of conjoint attribute levels across our experimental conditions. Tables C.1 and C.2 present the balance checks for the Taiwanese and South Korean samples, respectively. These tables show the proportion of each attribute level that appeared when the integration cue was shown versus when it was not shown to respondents. The balance checks show that randomization of both the conjoint attribute levels and the social integration cue was successful across both samples. No statistically significant imbalances were detected at the 5 percent level.

|                         | Integration Cue |           |
|-------------------------|-----------------|-----------|
|                         | Shown           | Not Shown |
| <b>Age</b>              |                 |           |
| 27                      | 24.8%           | 25.1%     |
| 35                      | 24.8%           | 24.9%     |
| 47                      | 25.9%           | 23.9%     |
| 58                      | 25.9%           | 24.8%     |
| <b>Ethnicity</b>        |                 |           |
| Han                     | 24.8%           | 24.7%     |
| Non-Han                 | 25.9%           | 24.7%     |
| <b>Gender</b>           |                 |           |
| Female                  | 25.4%           | 25.0%     |
| Male                    | 25.3%           | 24.3%     |
| <b>Language</b>         |                 |           |
| Conversational          | 25.5%           | 24.3%     |
| Broken                  | 25.7%           | 25.3%     |
| Fluent                  | 24.9%           | 24.5%     |
| <b>Married</b>          |                 |           |
| Single                  | 25.6%           | 24.3%     |
| Married                 | 25.7%           | 24.7%     |
| Married with children   | 24.7%           | 25.1%     |
| <b>Occupation</b>       |                 |           |
| Employee                | 25.0%           | 25.0%     |
| Unemployed              | 24.9%           | 24.9%     |
| Agricultural            | 25.1%           | 24.5%     |
| Engineer                | 26.4%           | 24.4%     |
| <b>Origin</b>           |                 |           |
| China                   | 24.9%           | 24.0%     |
| South Korea             | 26.1%           | 24.9%     |
| Indonesia               | 24.6%           | 25.6%     |
| USA                     | 25.7%           | 24.4%     |
| Philippines             | 25.5%           | 24.5%     |
| <b>Prior Visits</b>     |                 |           |
| Short-term work visa    | 24.4%           | 25.0%     |
| Visited once            | 26.1%           | 24.8%     |
| Overstayed              | 25.6%           | 24.3%     |
| <b>Religion</b>         |                 |           |
| Buddhist/Taoist/folk    | 26.3%           | 23.4%     |
| Muslim                  | 24.7%           | 26.4%     |
| Christian               | 25.7%           | 25.0%     |
| None                    | 24.7%           | 23.9%     |
| <b>Residence Length</b> |                 |           |
| 5 years                 | 25.2%           | 25.0%     |
| 8 years                 | 25.8%           | 24.6%     |
| 12 years                | 25.1%           | 24.5%     |
| <b>Work History</b>     |                 |           |
| In Taiwan               | 24.1%           | 26.0%     |
| In home country         | 25.7%           | 24.1%     |
| None                    | 26.2%           | 24.0%     |

Table C.1: Balance check: Taiwan. Proportions show the distribution of attribute levels across integration cue conditions (shown vs. not shown). No significant imbalances detected.

|                         | Integration Cue |           |
|-------------------------|-----------------|-----------|
|                         | Shown           | Not Shown |
| <b>Age</b>              |                 |           |
| 27                      | 24.7%           | 25.2%     |
| 36                      | 24.6%           | 24.4%     |
| 47                      | 24.7%           | 24.9%     |
| 58                      | 24.9%           | 24.4%     |
| <b>Ethnicity</b>        |                 |           |
| Ethnic Korean           | 24.7%           | 24.5%     |
| Non-ethnic Korean       | 24.7%           | 24.9%     |
| <b>Gender</b>           |                 |           |
| Male                    | 24.7%           | 24.3%     |
| Female                  | 24.8%           | 25.2%     |
| <b>Language</b>         |                 |           |
| Conversational          | 25.0%           | 23.8%     |
| A little                | 25.0%           | 24.3%     |
| None                    | 25.1%           | 24.6%     |
| Fluent                  | 23.8%           | 26.1%     |
| <b>Married</b>          |                 |           |
| Single                  | 25.1%           | 25.6%     |
| Married                 | 24.7%           | 24.3%     |
| Married with children   | 24.5%           | 24.2%     |
| <b>Occupation</b>       |                 |           |
| Programmer              | 25.2%           | 24.4%     |
| Farmer                  | 24.6%           | 25.7%     |
| Unemployed              | 24.9%           | 23.9%     |
| Office Worker           | 24.3%           | 24.8%     |
| <b>Origin</b>           |                 |           |
| Indonesia               | 23.7%           | 25.9%     |
| Brazil                  | 25.5%           | 23.8%     |
| USA                     | 24.6%           | 24.3%     |
| China                   | 25.2%           | 24.9%     |
| <b>Prior Visits</b>     |                 |           |
| Overstayed visa         | 24.7%           | 25.1%     |
| Short-term work visa    | 24.8%           | 24.4%     |
| Visited once            | 24.7%           | 24.7%     |
| <b>Religion</b>         |                 |           |
| Muslim                  | 24.5%           | 25.3%     |
| Buddhist                | 25.6%           | 24.0%     |
| Christian               | 25.0%           | 25.0%     |
| None                    | 23.9%           | 24.5%     |
| <b>Residence Length</b> |                 |           |
| 2 years                 | 24.6%           | 25.6%     |
| 7 years                 | 24.1%           | 24.2%     |
| 12 years                | 25.5%           | 24.3%     |
| <b>Work History</b>     |                 |           |
| In home country         | 24.7%           | 24.3%     |
| None                    | 24.4%           | 25.0%     |
| In Korea                | 25.1%           | 24.8%     |

Table C.2: Balance check: South Korea. Proportions show the distribution of attribute levels across integration cue conditions (shown vs. not shown). No significant imbalances detected.



## **D Additional Conjoint Analysis**

This appendix reports the additional conjoint analyses referenced in the manuscript. The first two sections provide the full benchmark and ratings-based results that sit behind the main figures. The remaining sections examine the exploratory civil society analyses and the civic-identity moderator analysis used to assess the identity-regime mechanism.

### **Full Models**

Figures D.1 and D.2 present the full benchmark OLS models for South Korea and Taiwan, respectively. These models display marginal means for all immigrant attribute levels, both with and without the social integration cue. While the main text focuses on key quantities of interest (integration cues, ethnicity, and religion), the figures here provide a complete view of the baseline estimates across all randomized attributes.

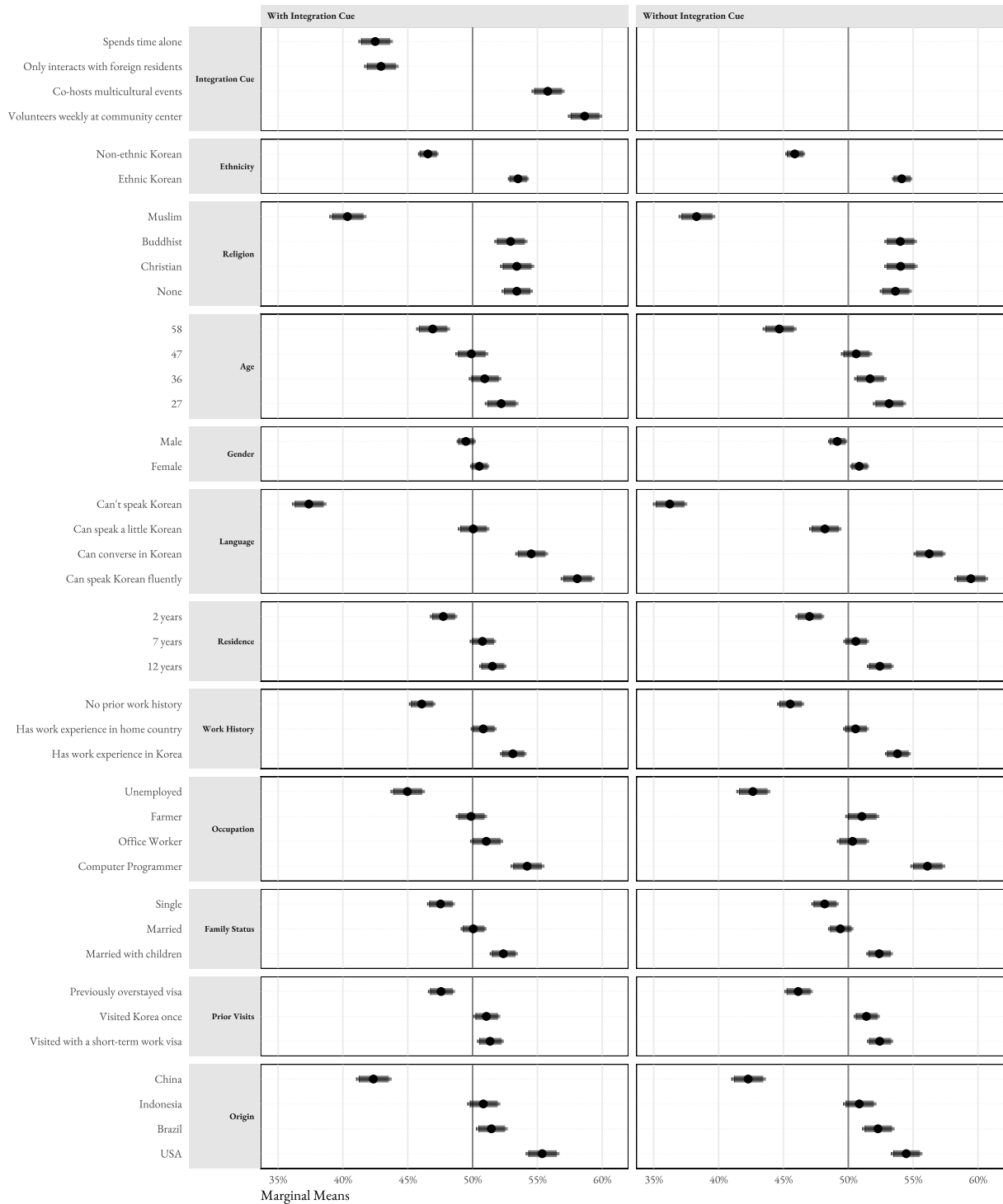


Figure D.1: Marginal means of all immigrant attribute levels with and without the integration cue: South Korea. Based on the benchmark OLS model with clustered standard errors. The marginal means show the mean outcome of each attribute level, averaged across all others. Error bars show 90 and 95% confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

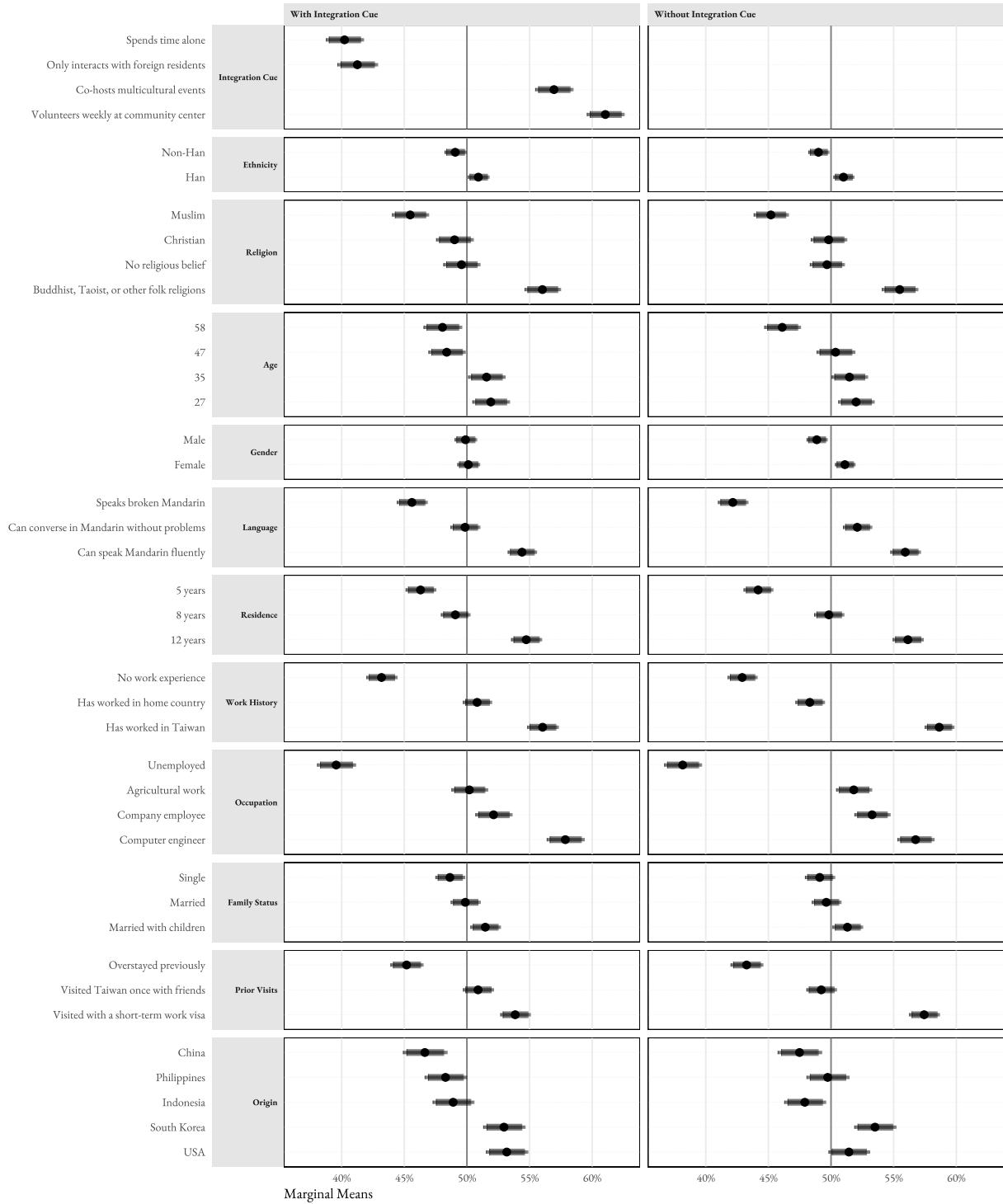


Figure D.2: Marginal means of all immigrant attribute levels with and without the integration cue: Taiwan. Based on the benchmark OLS model with clustered standard errors. The marginal means show the mean outcome of each attribute level, averaged across all others. Error bars show 90 and 95% confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

## **Ratings-Based Measure**

Figures D.3 and D.4 replicate the conjoint analysis using the seven-point rating measure rather than the forced-choice outcome. The purpose is simple: to check that the main results are not an artifact of the forced-choice design. The vertical lines indicate the median rating points. The pattern looks much like the main analysis. Integration cues raise support for immigrant naturalization, and the moderation by ethnic and religious background remains visible.

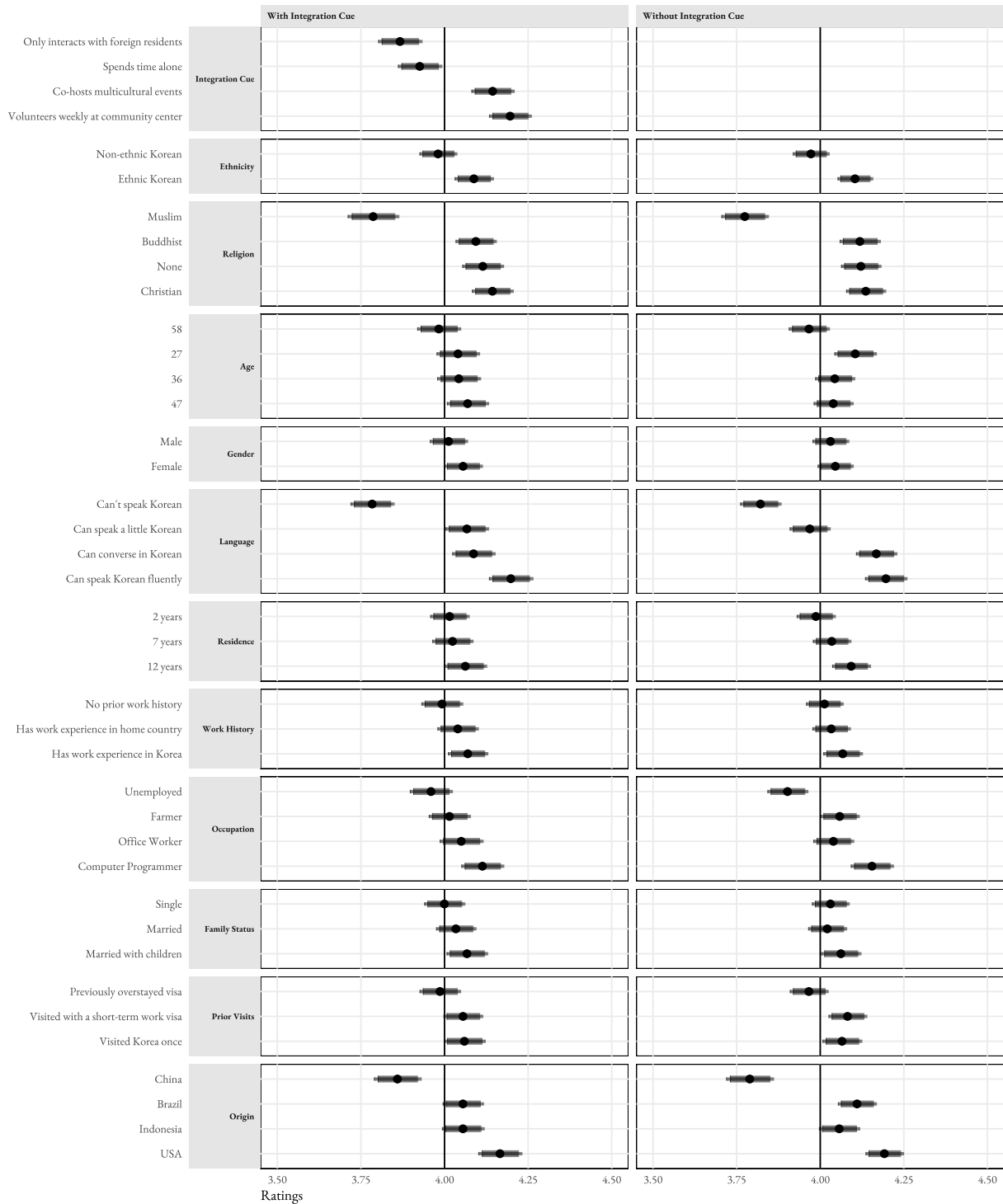


Figure D.3: Ratings-based marginal means of all immigrant attribute levels with and without the integration cue: South Korea. The vertical lines represent median points on the seven-point scale. Results reproduce the main forced-choice findings using an alternative outcome measure. Error bars show 90 and 95% confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

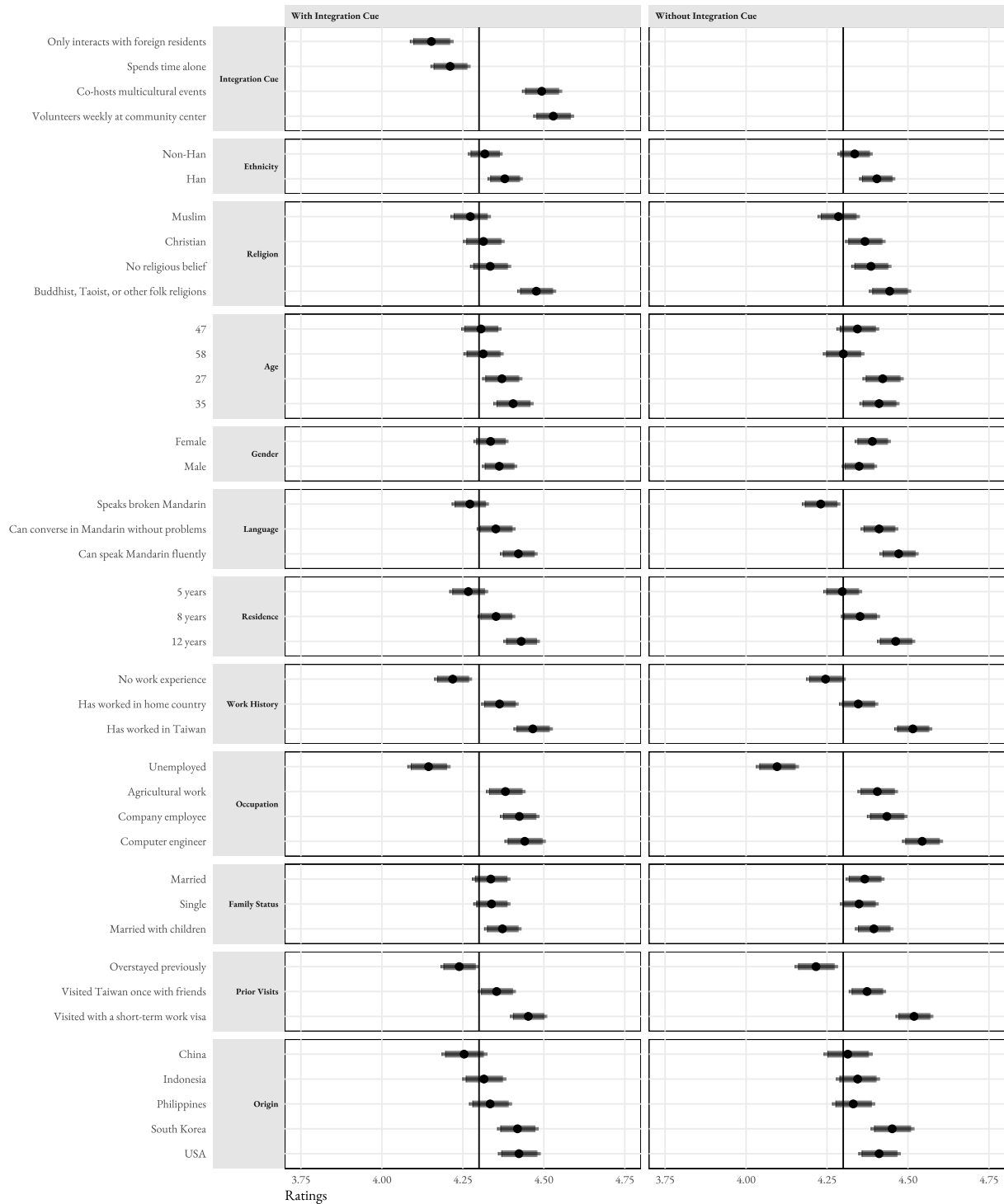


Figure D.4: Ratings-based marginal means of all immigrant attribute levels with and without the integration cue: Taiwan. The vertical lines represent median points on the seven-point scale. Results reproduce the main forced-choice findings using an alternative outcome measure. Error bars show 90 and 95% confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

## Full Models by Civil Society Framing Treatment

Figures D.5 and D.6 show the exploratory analyses that include the civil society (CS) framing prime. Respondents were randomly assigned to receive, or not receive, the following introductory statement prior to the conjoint tasks:

*This policy initiative is the result of a collaboration between the government, NGOs, religious groups, and local community leaders. Their joint efforts aim to construct a more balanced and inclusive immigration system for newcomers.*

The prime does not move evaluations in any systematic way. Most differences are small and irregular. In South Korea, the integration-cue patterns are essentially unchanged. In Taiwan, one co-hosting contrast is slightly negative, but the broader pattern does not suggest that the frame made civic engagement more persuasive.

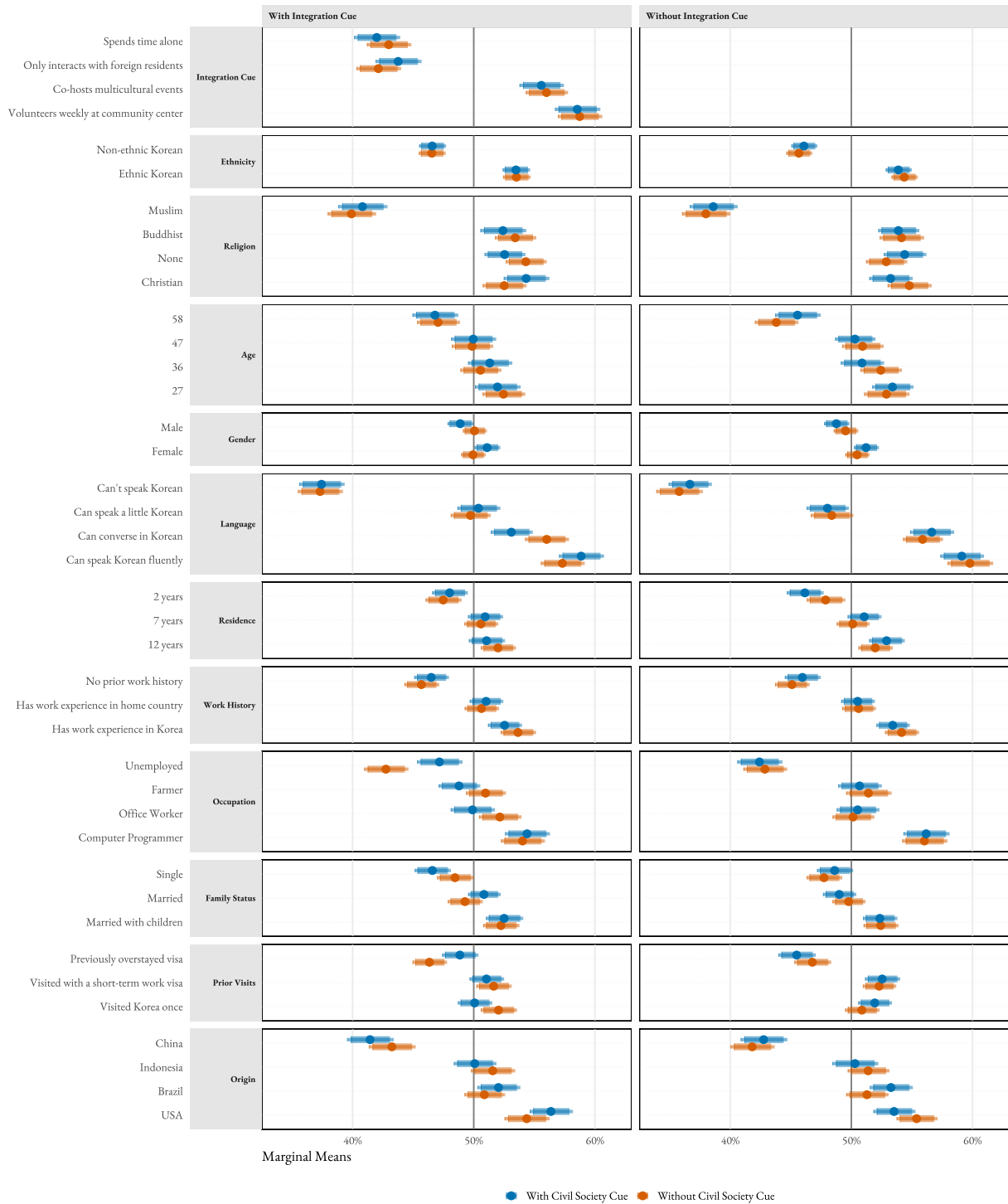


Figure D.5: Marginal means of all immigrant attribute levels with and without the integration cue, by civil society framing treatment: South Korea. Estimates are based on the benchmark OLS model with clustered standard errors. The marginal means show the average outcome for each attribute level, separately for respondents exposed to the civil society framing prime and those in the control group. Error bars show 90 and 95% confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).



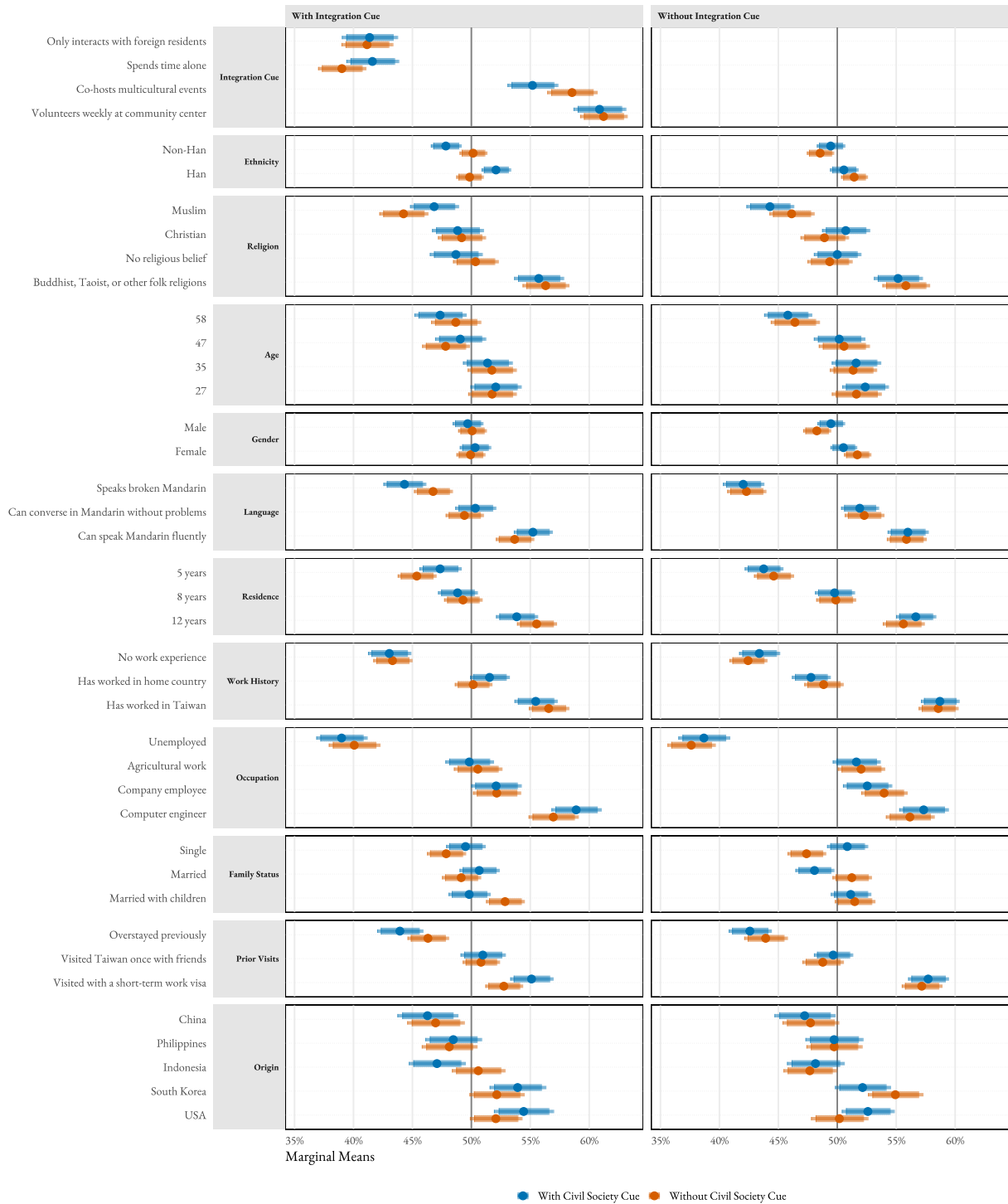


Figure D.6: Marginal means of all immigrant attribute levels with and without the integration cue, by civil society framing treatment: Taiwan. Estimates are based on the benchmark OLS model with clustered standard errors. The marginal means show the average outcome for each attribute level, separately for respondents exposed to the civil society framing prime and those in the control group. Error bars show 90 and 95% confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

## Civil Society Membership

We also examine whether respondents who belong to civil society organizations respond differently to integration cues and to the civil society framing treatment. If civic legacies operate through advocacy networks and organizational practices, respondents embedded in those networks should be more attentive to behavioral signals of civic engagement and more responsive when civil society's role in immigration is made salient.

We measure civil society membership using survey items on organizational participation.<sup>2</sup> A respondent is coded as a civil society member if they reported membership in at least one organization. Under this coding, 53 percent of South Korean respondents and 34 percent of Taiwanese respondents qualify as civil society members.

Figure D.7 presents marginal means for integration-cue levels, separately for civil society members and non-members in each country. The patterns look much the same across the two groups: integration cues increase support for naturalization regardless of organizational membership. The right panels show the difference between members and non-members; those differences are modest and usually do not reach conventional significance thresholds. Civil society membership does not systematically amplify responsiveness to integration cues in either country.

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<sup>2</sup>Respondents were asked whether they belonged to: (1) church or religious organizations, (2) sports, recreation, or hobby organizations, (3) art or music organizations, (4) education organizations, (5) professional associations, and (6) other civic organizations. South Korea included a seventh category: labor unions. In South Korea, respondents could indicate "member, active," "member, inactive," or "non-member"; in Taiwan, response options were "yes," "no," or "unsure."

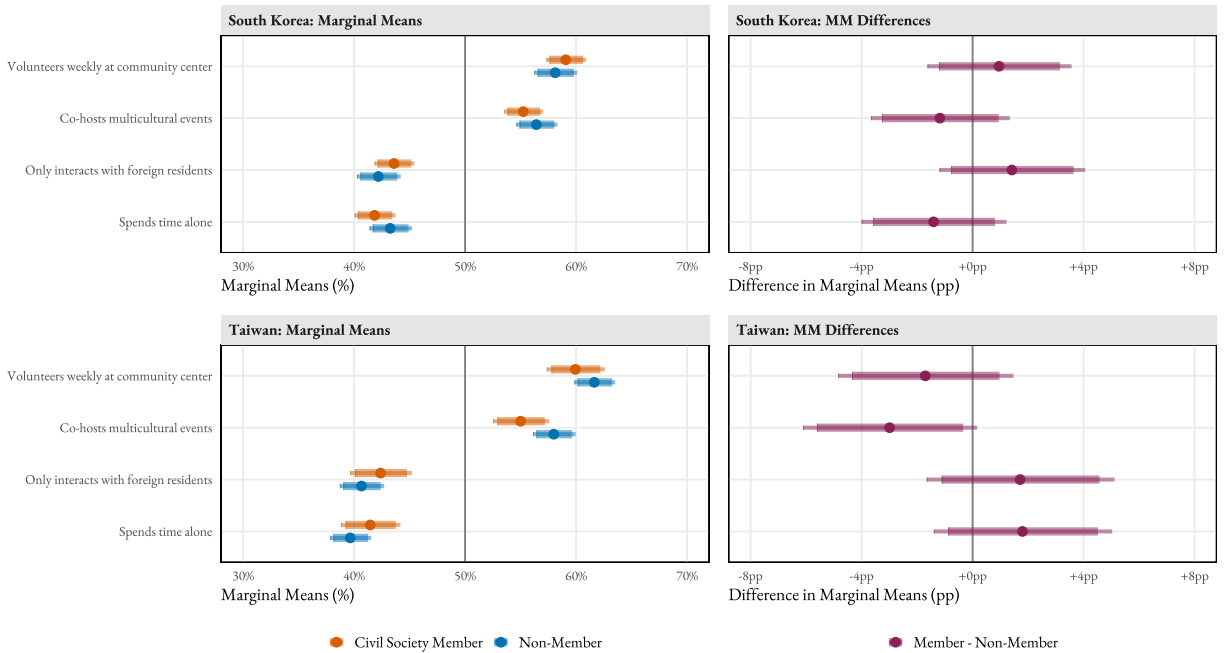


Figure D.7: Civil society membership and integration cues: marginal means and differences. The analysis is based on an OLS model with clustered standard errors. The figure presents results for South Korea (top row) and Taiwan (bottom row). Within each row, the left panel shows how support for naturalization varies by integration cue for civil society members versus non-members. The right panel shows the difference in marginal means (member minus non-member), where positive values indicate higher support among members. Error bars represent 90 and 95 percent confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

We also test whether the civil society framing treatment matters more among respondents who are already embedded in civil society networks. If the civic legacy mechanism runs through organizational intermediaries, the prime should work best in this subgroup. Figures D.8 and D.9 replicate the full conjoint models shown in Figures D.5 and D.6, but restrict the sample to active civil society members. Even there, the framing treatment does not move responses in any consistent way. The estimates with and without the prime are nearly identical across attributes, including the integration cue. That further weakens the claim that the channel tested here links civil society legacies to mass cue responsiveness.

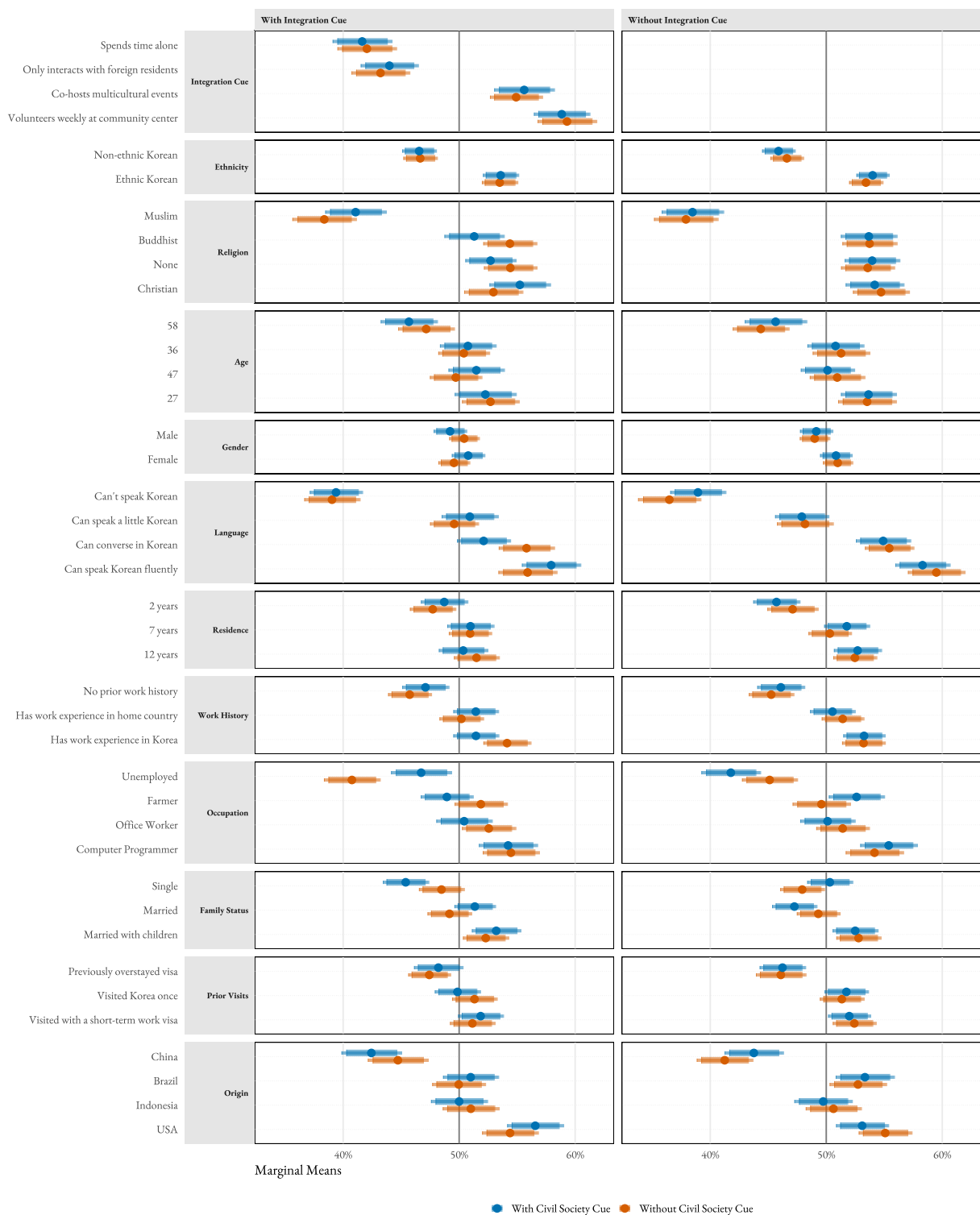


Figure D.8: Civil society framing treatment among civil society members only: South Korea. Marginal means of all immigrant attribute levels with and without the integration cue, by civil society framing treatment, restricted to respondents who reported membership in at least one civic organization ( $n = 1,067$ ). Estimates are based on the benchmark OLS model with clustered standard errors. Error bars show 90 and 95% confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

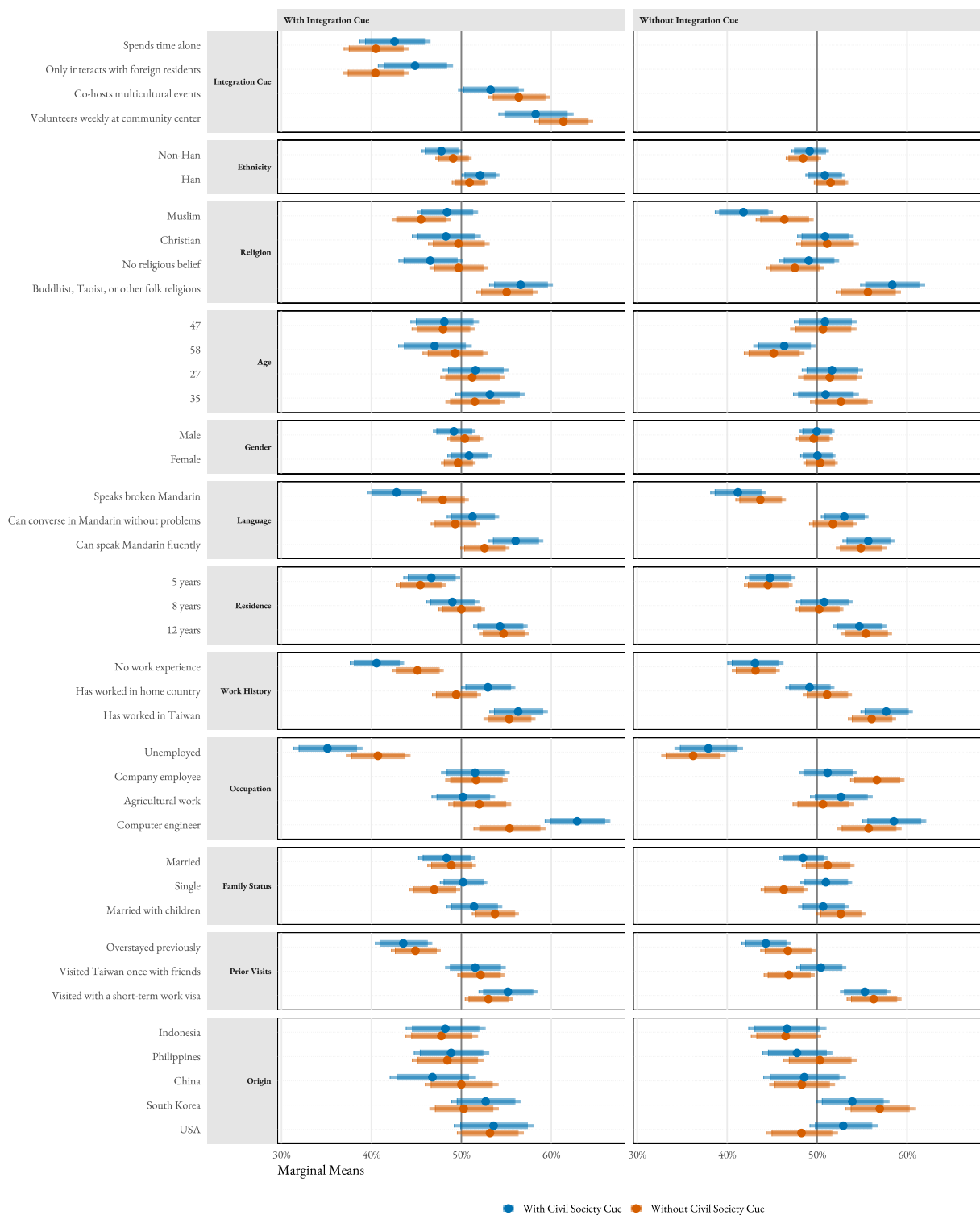


Figure D.9: Civil society framing treatment among civil society members only: Taiwan. Marginal means of all immigrant attribute levels with and without the integration cue, by civil society framing treatment, restricted to respondents who reported membership in at least one civic organization ( $n = 701$ ). Estimates are based on the benchmark OLS model with clustered standard errors. Error bars show 90 and 95% confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

## Coding the Civic Identity Measure

The civic-identity moderation analysis in Figure D.10 uses the coding rule described briefly in the manuscript’s methodology section. To classify respondents’ national identity orientations, we draw on a standard battery adapted from Kunovich (2009) and Bonikowski and DiMaggio (2016). Both the South Korean and Taiwanese surveys include the same eight-item national identity battery. Respondents were asked: “How important do you think each of the following is for being truly [Korean/Taiwanese]?” Each item was rated on a four-point scale (“Not important at all,” “Not very important,” “Somewhat important,” “Very important”):

1. Having [Korean/Taiwanese] ancestry (“blood”)
2. Having been born in [Korea/Taiwan] (“born”)
3. Having [Korean/Taiwanese] citizenship (“citizen”)
4. Being able to speak [Korean/Mandarin] (“language”)
5. Feeling [Korean/Taiwanese] (“feel”)
6. Respecting [Korea’s/Taiwan’s] political institutions and laws (“political”)
7. Following [Korean/Taiwanese] customs and traditions (“tradition”)
8. Having lived most of one’s life in [Korea/Taiwan] (“life”)

Following standard practice in the literature (Kunovich, 2009; Bonikowski and DiMaggio, 2016; Sniderman, Hagendoorn and Prior, 2004), we use a subset of these items to construct a civic-ethnic typology. Specifically, *blood* and *born* anchor the ascriptive dimension, while *citizen* and *political* anchor the civic dimension. Items such as language, tradition, and life are excluded because they load ambiguously across both dimensions (Kunovich, 2009; Bonikowski and DiMaggio, 2016).

A respondent is coded as *civic* if they rate both “citizen” and “political” as important (“Somewhat” or “Very important”), and as *ethnocentric* if they rate both “blood” and “born” as important. Our civic identifier variable (`civic.strict`) equals 1 if a respondent is civic but *not* ethnocentric; that is, they assign importance to legal citizenship and institutional respect but do not simultaneously assign importance to both ancestry and birthplace. All other respondents are coded as non-civic identifiers.

The country distributions differ substantially under this coding. In South Korea, 38 percent of re-

spondents qualify as civic identifiers, compared to 56 percent in Taiwan. Among respondents who endorse the civic criteria, 53 percent in South Korea also endorse both ethnocentric items, compared to 28 percent in Taiwan. This higher rate of “mixed” endorsement in South Korea matches work showing that civic and ethnic elements coexist more strongly in settings with rigid ethno-national traditions (Bonikowski and DiMaggio, 2016; Reeskens and Hooghe, 2010).

We also estimated an alternative coding for Taiwan that excludes respondents who endorse ancestry alone, rather than requiring co-endorsement of both ancestry and birthplace. Under this alternative, 48 percent of Taiwanese respondents qualify as civic identifiers, compared to 56 percent under the primary specification. The moderation results do not change under either coding.

## Civic Identity Moderation

Figure D.10 asks whether civic nationalists, defined here as respondents who base membership on shared values and civic participation rather than ancestry, react more strongly to integration cues. If the identity-regime account is right, that pattern should be clearest in Taiwan. It is most visible for volunteering in Taiwan, where civic identifiers reach roughly 63 percent support, compared to 58 percent among non-civic identifiers. For co-hosting multicultural events, the Taiwanese groups look much the same. In South Korea, the corresponding differences are small and imprecise. This is, at most, weak support for  $H_{3a}$ : the one clear civic-identity premium appears in Taiwan and only for volunteering.

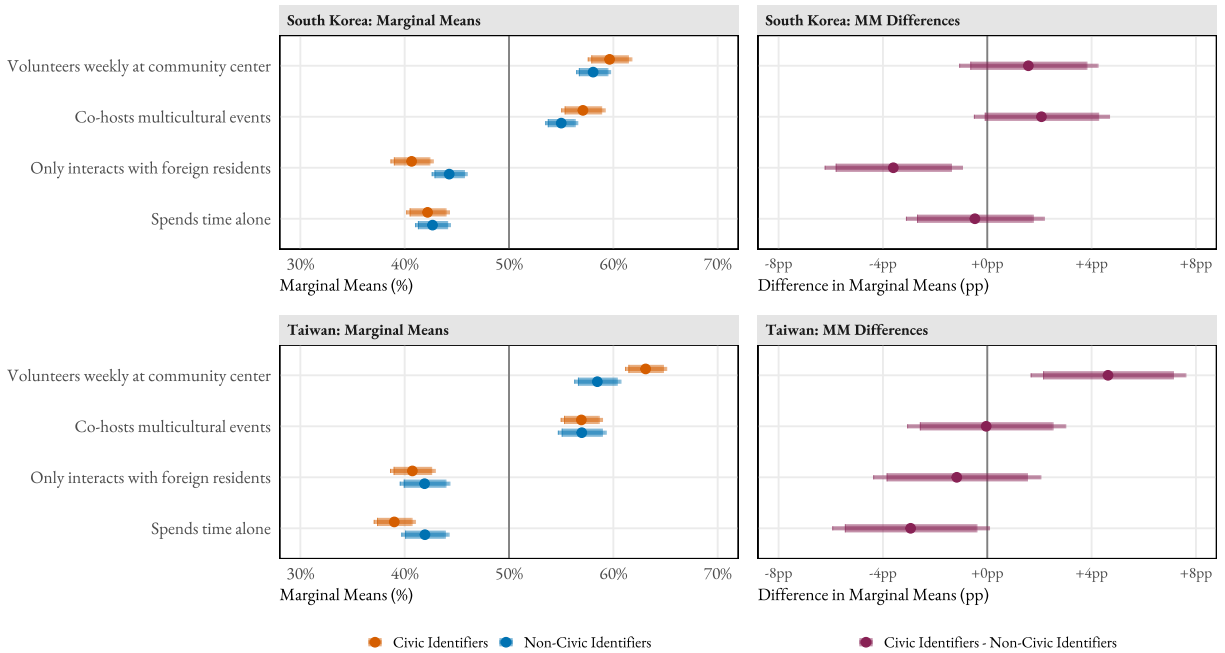


Figure D.10: Civic identity and integration cues: marginal means and differences. The analysis is based on an OLS model with clustered standard errors. The figure presents results for South Korea (top row) and Taiwan (bottom row). Within each row, the left panel shows how support for naturalization varies by integration cue for civic identifiers versus non-civic identifiers. The right panel shows the difference in marginal means (civic identifiers minus non-civic identifiers), where positive values indicate higher support among civic identifiers. Error bars represent 90 and 95 percent confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

## Framing and Cue Responsiveness

Figure D.11 tests whether a civil society framing message amplifies cue responsiveness. If South Korea's dense, institutionalized civil society networks make civic engagement more salient, priming respondents to think about civil society's role in immigrant incorporation should increase the cue effect there. It does not. In South Korea, the framing differences are close to zero across the relevant cue conditions. In Taiwan, one co-hosting contrast is slightly negative. Figure D.11 therefore does not support  $H_{3b}$ . Because the prime is brief, this is only a limited test, but it provides no evidence that civic legacies directly heighten mass responsiveness to behavioral cues.



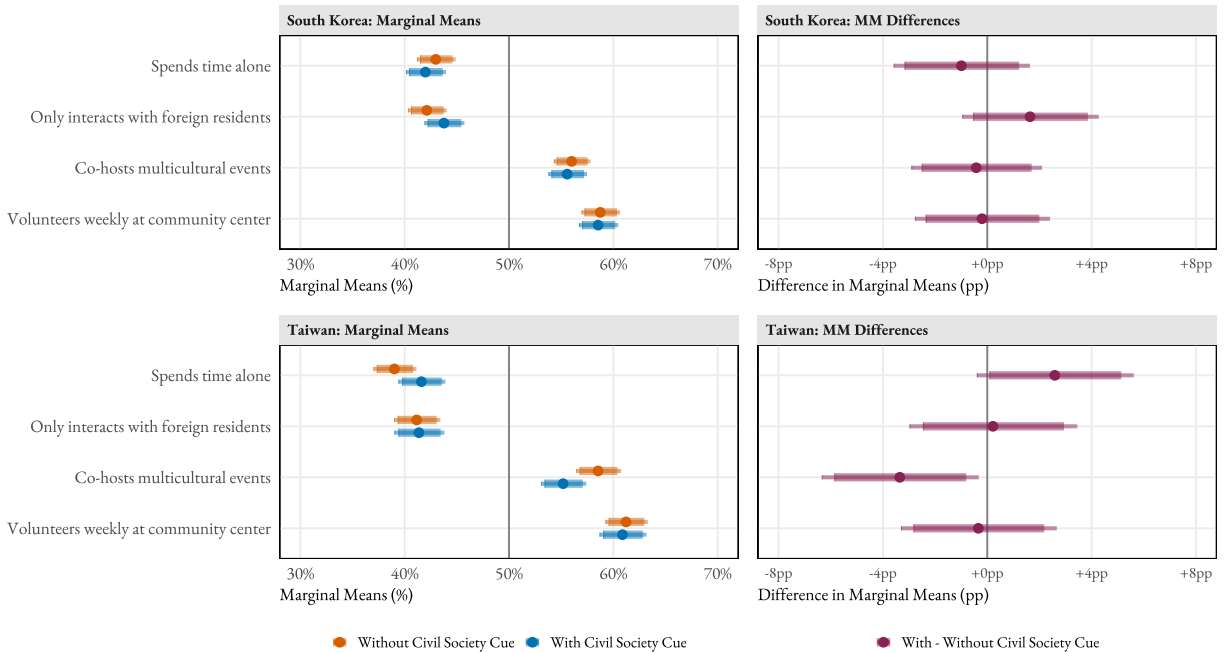


Figure D.11: Civil society framing and integration cues: marginal means and differences. The analysis is based on an OLS model with clustered standard errors. The figure presents results for South Korea (top row) and Taiwan (bottom row). Within each row, the left panel shows how support for naturalization varies by integration cue for respondents who received the civil society framing prime versus those who did not. The right panel shows the difference in marginal means (with civil society cue minus without), where positive values indicate that the framing increased support. Error bars represent 90 and 95 percent confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

## E Open-Text Validation: Structural Topic Models and LLM Classification

This appendix reports the open-text validation analysis referenced in the manuscript’s discussion of cue interpretation and mechanism. After their final conjoint task, respondents answered the following open-ended prompt: “Please briefly explain why you chose the immigrant you selected in the previous comparison.” We use these 4,047 responses (2 missing) to assess whether the integration cue changed what respondents emphasized in their justifications. We analyze the responses in two ways.

First, we estimate separate structural topic models (STM) for South Korea and Taiwan with the cue indicator entered as a topic-prevalence covariate (Roberts, Stewart and Tingley, 2019). STMs were fit using spectral initialization with a random seed of 42. Topic counts were selected from candidate values of  $K \in \{4, 5, 6, 7, 8, 9, 10, 12\}$  using coherence-exclusivity diagnostics:  $K = 6$  for South Korea and  $K = 8$  for Taiwan. Korean text was tokenized using *kiwipiepy*; Chinese text was tokenized at the character level via *quanteda*. Stopwords were removed using language-specific lists, and terms appearing in fewer than two documents were dropped. No stemming or lemmatization was applied.

Second, we classify responses with a five-code scheme using GPT-4o-mini (version gpt-4o-mini-2024-07-18, temperature = 0, seed = 42), following the codebook design principles in Halterman and Keith (2026). The codebook distinguishes civic commitment, functional integration, economic focus, identity concern, and *other*. The final category captures brief or otherwise uninformative responses that do not express a substantive evaluation of the immigrant profile. The full codebook and system prompt are archived in the replication materials.

To benchmark the single-model results, we compare them to archived classifications from Qwen 2.5 72B, a larger open-weight multilingual model. The two models agree closely overall (89.1 percent raw agreement; Cohen’s  $\kappa = 0.86$ ). Because the primary classifier is a proprietary model subject to potential deprecation, all raw classifications are archived so that results do not depend on re-running the model.

Figure E.1 reports the STM treatment effects. In South Korea, the cue increases the prevalence of a community-engagement topic by about 6.8 percentage points and decreases a language-and-visa topic by

about 4.1 points. In Taiwan, the cue increases a community-participation-and-identity topic by about 11.0 points and decreases topics centered on fluency, residence duration, and practical credentials. In both countries, cue exposure shifts responses away from language, residence, and practical qualifications and toward civic contribution, with larger changes in Taiwan.



Figure E.1: Structural topic model estimates: effect of the integration cue on topic prevalence. Separate structural topic models are estimated for South Korea and Taiwan with cue exposure entered as a prevalence covariate. Positive coefficients indicate topics that appear more often when the integration cue is shown; negative coefficients indicate topics that appear less often. Error bars represent 90 and 95 percent confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

Figure E.2 reports the GPT-4o-mini classification results. The same shift appears in both countries. When the cue is shown, references to civic commitment increase by about 16.1 percentage points in South Korea and 18.0 points in Taiwan. References to functional integration fall by about 7.8 and 8.1 points, respectively, while economic considerations fall by about 5.7 points in South Korea and 10.2 points in Taiwan. Identity-concern language changes little, falling modestly in South Korea and remaining close to zero in Taiwan. The residual *other* category rises only slightly in both countries, and those changes are imprecise. The cue therefore pushes respondents toward the specific language of civic contribution rather than toward a generic notion of “better integration.”

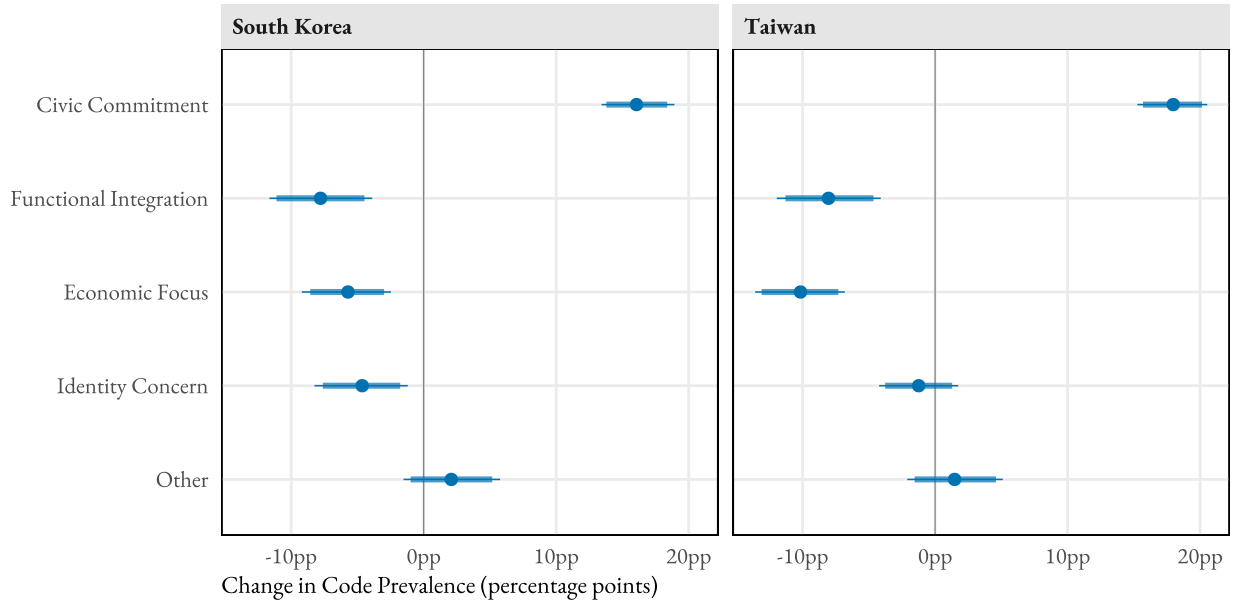


Figure E.2: GPT-4o-mini classification: effect of the integration cue on code prevalence. Responses are classified with a five-code scheme consisting of civic commitment, functional integration, economic focus, identity concern, and other. Positive coefficients indicate that a code appears more often when the integration cue is shown; negative coefficients indicate that it appears less often. Error bars represent 90 and 95 percent confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

Figure E.3 benchmarks those cue-effect estimates against Qwen 2.5 72B. The two models produce nearly identical patterns. Both show large increases in civic-commitment language in both countries, declines in functional-integration and economic-focus language, weak movement in identity concern, and only small changes in the residual *other* category. The result does not depend on the single-model choice.

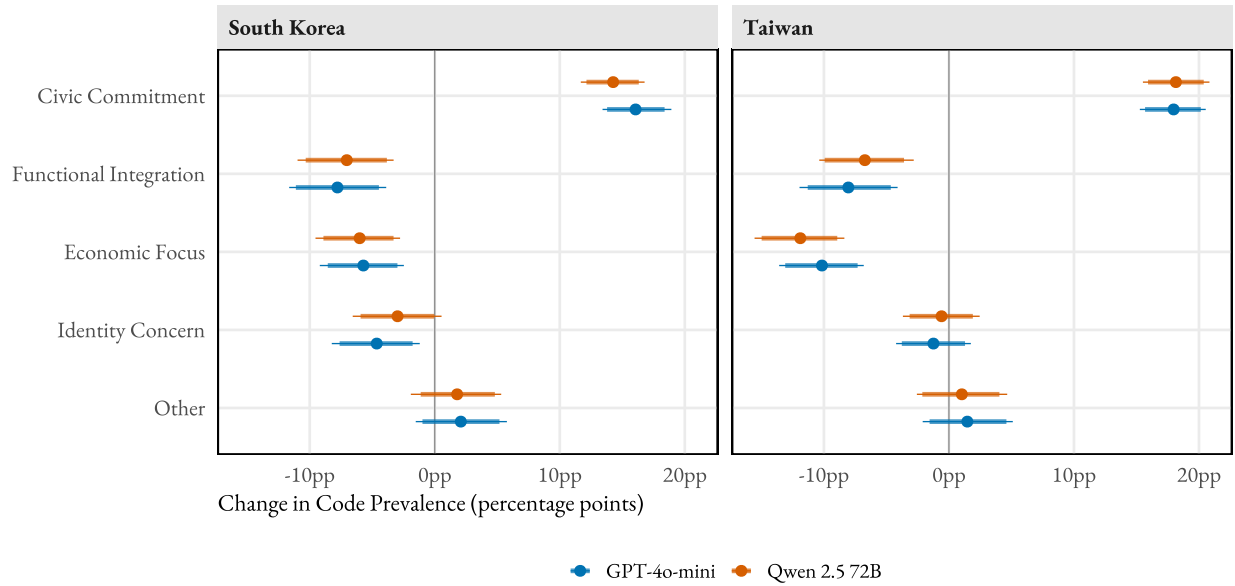


Figure E.3: LLM validation: GPT-4o-mini versus Qwen 2.5 72B. The figure compares cue-effect estimates from the archived GPT-4o-mini classifications used in Figure E.2 with estimates from Qwen 2.5 72B on the same five-code scheme. Pairwise model agreement is 89.1 percent with Cohen’s  $\kappa = 0.86$ . Error bars represent 90 and 95 percent confidence intervals (thicker bars = 90%, thinner bars = 95%).

The two methods point to the same conclusion. Respondents did not simply describe the immigrant as more “integrated.” They shifted toward language about civic effort, community participation, and contribution. The Qwen benchmark shows the same pattern with a second, larger multilingual model, which makes it less likely that the result is an artifact of one classifier.

## F Robustness Diagnostics

This appendix consolidates the robustness checks referenced in the manuscript’s research design and findings sections: measurement error, multiple testing, cross-national comparability, and task-order effects.

### Measurement Error Correction

Conjoint responses are subject to measurement error from profile swapping, in which respondents inadvertently reverse their intended selection (Clayton et al., 2023). Following Clayton et al., we apply a conservative intra-respondent reliability (IRR) estimate of 0.75, based on benchmarks from comparable paired-profile designs. Table F.1 reports original and corrected AMCEs for the integration cue attribute. Corrected estimates are uniformly larger in magnitude, confirming that uncorrected estimates represent lower bounds.

| Country     | Level                                 | Original |       | Corrected |       |
|-------------|---------------------------------------|----------|-------|-----------|-------|
|             |                                       | AMCE     | SE    | AMCE      | SE    |
| South Korea | Volunteers weekly at community center | 0.161    | 0.011 | 0.228     | 0.015 |
| South Korea | Co-hosts multicultural events         | 0.129    | 0.011 | 0.183     | 0.015 |
| South Korea | Only interacts with foreign residents | 0.004    | 0.010 | 0.005     | 0.014 |
| Taiwan      | Volunteers weekly at community center | 0.210    | 0.012 | 0.296     | 0.017 |
| Taiwan      | Co-hosts multicultural events         | 0.168    | 0.012 | 0.237     | 0.017 |
| Taiwan      | Only interacts with foreign residents | 0.008    | 0.012 | 0.012     | 0.017 |

Table F.1: Measurement error correction for integration cue AMCEs. Following Clayton et al. (2023), we apply an assumed IRR of 0.75 ( $\tau = 0.146$ ) based on benchmarks from comparable paired-profile conjoint designs. Corrected AMCEs are obtained by dividing the original estimates by  $(1 - 2\tau)$ ; corrected standard errors are scaled by the same factor.

### Multiple Testing Correction

With twelve profile attributes and multiple subgroup contrasts, there are many implicit comparisons. We apply Benjamini-Hochberg false discovery rate (FDR) correction to all main-text hypothesis tests, including  $H_1$  AMCEs and  $H_2$  subgroup-specific cue AMCEs (Liu and Shiraito, 2023). Table F.2 reports original and adjusted  $p$ -values. The results do not change after correction.

| Country                                                   | Test                                        | Estimate | $p$    | $p_{\text{adj}}$ | Sig. |
|-----------------------------------------------------------|---------------------------------------------|----------|--------|------------------|------|
| SK                                                        | AMCE: Volunteers weekly at community center | 0.161    | 0.0000 | 0.0000           | ✓    |
| SK                                                        | AMCE: Co-hosts multicultural events         | 0.129    | 0.0000 | 0.0000           | ✓    |
| SK                                                        | AMCE: Only interacts with foreign residents | 0.004    | 0.7240 | 0.7240           |      |
| TW                                                        | AMCE: Only interacts with foreign residents | 0.008    | 0.4830 | 0.4997           |      |
| TW                                                        | AMCE: Volunteers weekly at community center | 0.210    | 0.0000 | 0.0000           | ✓    |
| TW                                                        | AMCE: Co-hosts multicultural events         | 0.168    | 0.0000 | 0.0000           | ✓    |
| <i>Total tests in family: 30. Conclusions changed: 0.</i> |                                             |          |        |                  |      |

Table F.2: Benjamini-Hochberg false discovery rate correction applied to all main-text hypothesis tests ( $H_1$  AMCEs and  $H_2$  subgroup-specific cue AMCEs). The  $p_{\text{adj}}$  column reports adjusted  $p$ -values. No substantive conclusions change after correction.

## Cross-National Difference Tests

To formally test whether integration cue effects differ significantly between South Korea and Taiwan, we estimate a pooled OLS model interacting integration cue levels with a country indicator. Because four attributes use country-specific levels that cannot be meaningfully pooled (country of origin, language ability, occupation, and years since arrival), these are omitted from the pooled specification. The remaining eight attributes are included as controls. Standard errors are clustered by respondent. Table F.3 reports the interaction coefficients. Positive values indicate that the effect is larger in Taiwan than in South Korea.

| Integration Cue $\times$ Taiwan       | Estimate | SE    | $t$  | $p$   |
|---------------------------------------|----------|-------|------|-------|
| Volunteers weekly at community center | 0.046*** | 0.016 | 2.80 | 0.005 |
| Co-hosts multicultural events         | 0.033**  | 0.016 | 1.98 | 0.047 |
| Only interacts with foreign residents | 0.004    | 0.016 | 0.27 | 0.787 |

Table F.3: Cross-national difference test for integration cue effects. Coefficients are from a pooled OLS model interacting integration cue levels with a Taiwan indicator (reference: South Korea  $\times$  Spends time alone). Standard errors are clustered by respondent ( $N_{\text{profiles}} = 34,018$ ). Positive coefficients indicate that the integration cue effect is larger in Taiwan than in South Korea. \*\*\* $p < 0.01$ , \*\* $p < 0.05$ , \* $p < 0.10$ .

## Task-Order Stability

To assess whether respondent preferences shift over the course of the conjoint experiment, we estimate marginal means separately for early and late tasks. Table F.4 reports the comparison. No statistically significant differences are detected, indicating stable preference patterns across tasks.

| Country     | Level                                 | Marginal Means |       | Diff.  | SE    | p     |
|-------------|---------------------------------------|----------------|-------|--------|-------|-------|
|             |                                       | Early          | Late  |        |       |       |
| South Korea | Spends time alone                     | 0.432          | 0.411 | -0.020 | 0.016 | 0.211 |
| South Korea | Volunteers weekly at community center | 0.591          | 0.590 | -0.001 | 0.016 | 0.938 |
| South Korea | Co-hosts multicultural events         | 0.553          | 0.554 | +0.001 | 0.016 | 0.938 |
| South Korea | Only interacts with foreign residents | 0.427          | 0.442 | +0.015 | 0.016 | 0.351 |
| Taiwan      | Spends time alone                     | 0.411          | 0.384 | -0.027 | 0.019 | 0.150 |
| Taiwan      | Only interacts with foreign residents | 0.415          | 0.416 | +0.001 | 0.020 | 0.951 |
| Taiwan      | Volunteers weekly at community center | 0.608          | 0.606 | -0.002 | 0.018 | 0.899 |
| Taiwan      | Co-hosts multicultural events         | 0.556          | 0.583 | +0.027 | 0.019 | 0.145 |

Table F.4: Task-order stability analysis. Marginal means for the integration cue attribute are estimated separately for early conjoint tasks (South Korea: tasks 1–3; Taiwan: tasks 1–2) and late tasks (South Korea: tasks 8–10; Taiwan: tasks 6–7). The difference column reports late minus early estimates. No statistically significant differences are detected, indicating stable preference patterns across tasks.

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